

DEVELOPMENTAL PSYCHOLOGY

PIAGET'S THEORY OF COGNITIVE
DEVELOPMENT

KOHLBERG'S THEORY OF MORAL
DEVELOPMENT

ERIKSON'S STAGE THEORY OF IDENTITY

BANDURA'S SOCIAL LEARNING THEORY

PART 2.



Kohlberg's Stages of Moral Development

Lesson Transcript

How do people learn to make morally sound decisions? To illustrate Kohlberg's levels of moral development, we'll follow Lauren as she makes difficult decisions.

Moral decision

At some point in your life, you've probably been faced with a moral dilemma. Consider this example: a father tells his daughter, Lauren, that she can have a bike if she saves enough money from her weekly allowance to pay for half of it. Then, when Lauren tells her father she's saved up all the money, her father reverses his decision and tells Lauren to give him the money because he wants to use it to buy beer. On the one hand, Lauren wants to obey her father; on the other, she doesn't want to support his destructive drinking habits. Lauren is torn about giving her father the money.

Lawrence Kohlberg: Stages of Moral Development

Psychologist **Lawrence Kohlberg** was especially interested in how children develop their ability to make moral decisions like this one. He came up with several stages of **moral development**, which, though not without criticism from other psychologists, form a good starting point to think about these questions. It is important to remember that not everyone, even adults, necessarily make it into all of the higher stages.

Pre-conventional Level

People first pass through two stages known collectively as the **pre-conventional** level. In the **first stage**, people are motivated by trying to avoid punishment; their actions are bad if they get punished and good if they don't. In this stage, Lauren would give her father the money because she doesn't want him to punish her. At the **second stage**, people are motivated purely by self-interest. Lauren at this stage would likely keep the money, thinking that, even if she can't afford a bike, she can use it to buy something else good for herself.

Conventional Level

The next level of moral development, the **conventional**, also contains two stages. Adolescents typically operate at this level, as do some adults. In **stage three**, people make moral decisions based on getting people to like them. Lauren might decide to give her father the money because this will improve her relationship with him; but if her mother is upset by her father's drinking,

she might decide to give the money to her mother in order to be a 'good girl' in her eyes. Her decision would be based on whichever social relationship seemed most important. In **stage four**, moral reasoning centers around maintaining a functioning society by recognizing that laws are more important than individual needs. In this stage, Lauren probably wouldn't give her father the money, because his alcoholism is disruptive to the stability of their family and community.

Post-Conventional Level

The final level of moral development is called the **post-conventional**. Not all adults reach this level; many are stuck at some of the earlier stages. Post-conventional moral thinkers reject the rigidity of laws, believing that they should be ignored or changed if they're not good laws. In **stage five**, people will try to act in ways that achieve the most good for the most number of people; they'd judge a law as unjust if it failed to do this. Lauren at this stage would not give her father the money, because she'd recognize that his alcoholism is hurting his family and himself. **Stage six** thinkers develop ethical principles and a sense of justice. Actions are taken because they are right in themselves, not because they help achieve other goals. Though Kohlberg theorized that this stage existed, he had trouble finding people who were always operating at this level. For Lauren to exhibit stage six moral reasoning, she'd have to have a strongly developed sense of the injustice of giving her father money for beer.

Carol Gilligan

Kohlberg's theories are not without their detractors. Perhaps the best-known of his critics is **Carol Gilligan**, who criticized Kohlberg's stages for being too focused on boys. Kohlberg claimed that boys tended to reach the higher stages more frequently than girls, which Gilligan and others have taken issue with. Yet Kohlberg has remained influential, largely because he took the first steps toward defining moral values through empirical studies. Though his conclusions may be flawed, and even sexist, his methodology is important.

Lesson Summary

So we've learned that Lawrence Kohlberg's theory of moral development proposes three levels on which we make judgments of right and wrong. **Pre-conventional** decisions are based on the direct consequences to the individual who is perpetrating the morally questionable act. **Conventional** decisions are based on wanting to please and to be accepted by others. And **post-conventional** decisions are based on an individually formulated sense of justice and respect for others.

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Kohlberg's Stages of Moral Development

- 1) What did Kohlberg believe about morality?
- 2) How did he develop his 6 stages?
- 3) What are the 3 levels of moral reasoning?
- 4) Summarise the pre-conventional stage.
- 5) Summarise the conventional stage.
- 6) Summarise the post-conventional stage.
- 7) Create a table outlining all 6 stages (including the 3 levels) of Kohlberg's Stages of Moral Development.

- Lawrence Kohlberg expanded on the earlier work of cognitive theorist Jean Piaget to explain the moral development of children, which he believed follows a series of stages.
- Kohlberg defined three levels of moral development: preconventional, conventional, and postconventional. Each level has two distinct stages.
- During the preconventional level, a child's sense of morality is externally controlled. Children accept and believe the rules of authority figures, such as parents and teachers, and they judge an action based on its consequences.
- During the conventional level, an individual's sense of morality is tied to personal and societal relationships. Children continue to accept the rules of authority figures, but this is now because they believe that this is necessary to ensure positive relationships and societal order.
- During the postconventional level, a person's sense of morality is defined in terms of more abstract principles and values. People now believe that some laws are unjust and should be changed or eliminated.
- Kohlberg's theory has been criticized for its cultural and gendered bias toward white, upper-class men and boys. It also fails to account for inconsistencies within moral judgments.

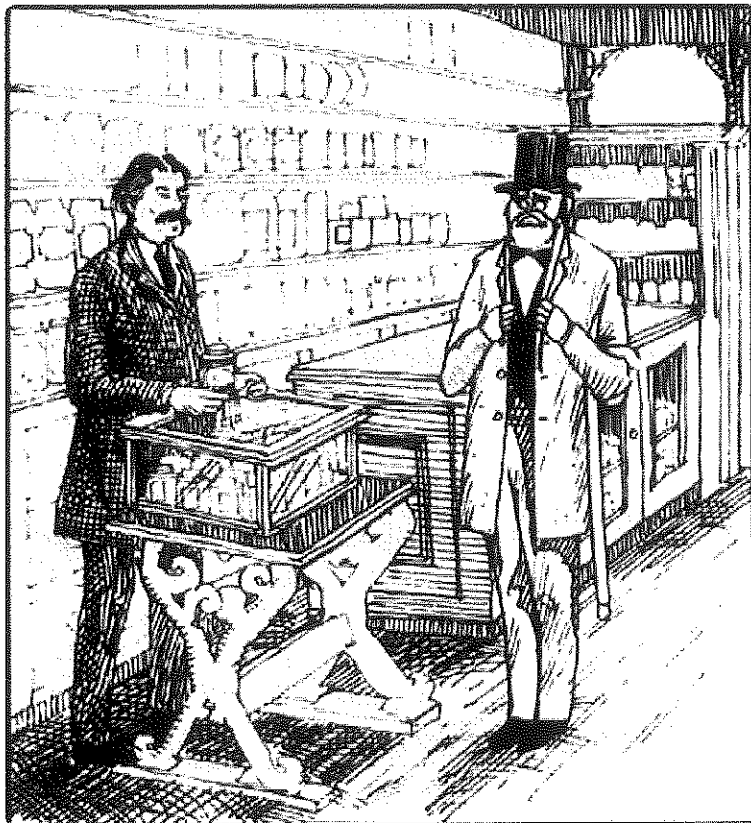
TERM

- **morality**
Recognition of the distinction between good and evil or between right and wrong; respect for and obedience to the rules of right conduct; the mental disposition or characteristic of behaving in a manner intended to produce good results.

KOHLBERG'S ORIGINAL MORAL DILEMMA — THE CASE OF HEINZ

One of Kohlberg's best-known moral dilemmas is the story of Heinz. Kohlberg used this dilemma to identify an individual's stage of moral development. His theory focuses on *how* people think about behaviour involving moral decisions, rather than *what* choices they make. Consequently, there are no 'right' or 'wrong' answers to the question of what Heinz should or should not do. Below is a description of Heinz's dilemma.

A woman is near death from a particular kind of cancer. There is one drug the doctors think might save her — a form of radium that a local pharmacist has recently discovered. The drug was expensive to make, but the pharmacist is charging 10 times what the drug cost him to make. He paid \$200 for the radium but charges \$2000 for a small dose of the drug. Heinz, who is the sick woman's husband, goes to everyone he knows to borrow the money. But he still has only about \$1000, which is half of what the drug costs. Heinz tells the pharmacist that his wife is dying and asks if he will sell him the drug at a cheaper price or let him pay later. But the pharmacist says, 'No, I discovered the drug and I'm going to make money from it.' Feeling desperate, Heinz considers breaking into the man's shop to steal the drug for his wife. What should Heinz do?



Heinz's moral dilemma — what should Heinz do?

BOX 5.10 KOHLBERG'S MORAL DILEMMA — THE CASE OF HEINZ: REASONING IN EACH STAGE OF MORAL DEVELOPMENT

Kohlberg believed that the responses an individual gives to Heinz's dilemma described in box 5.9 depended on their stage of moral development. When determining an individual's stage of moral development, Kohlberg considered the *reasons* they gave for whether Heinz should steal the drug rather than their answer of whether or not he should steal it. The chart below summarises the moral reasoning associated with each level and stage of Kohlberg's theory for Heinz's dilemma.

Preconventional level (0–9 years)	Stage 1	<i>Obedience and punishment orientation</i> — physical consequences determine what is 'good' and 'bad'	
	Decision	'Steal it'	'Don't steal it'
	Reason	It isn't really bad to take it. It isn't like he didn't ask to pay for it first. The drug he'd take is only worth \$200, he's not really taking a \$2000 drug.	It's a big crime. He won't get permission, and will use force to break into the shop. He will do a lot of damage, stealing a very expensive drug and damaging the store, too.
	Stage 2	<i>Naively egotistical orientation</i> — what satisfies one's own needs is 'good'	
Conventional level (9–15 years)	Decision	'Steal it'	'Don't steal it'
	Reason	It's all right to steal the drug because his wife needs it and he wants her to live. It isn't that he wants to steal, but it's the only way he can get the drug to save her.	He shouldn't steal it. The pharmacist isn't wrong or bad, he just wants to make a profit. That's why you're in business, to make money.
	Stage 3	<i>Good boy/nice girl orientation</i> — what pleases or helps others is 'good'	
	Decision	'Steal it'	'Don't steal it'
	Reason	He was only doing something that was natural for a good husband to do. You can't blame him for doing something out of love for his wife. It would be worse if he didn't love his wife enough to save her.	If his wife dies, he can't be blamed. It isn't because he's heartless or that he doesn't love her enough to do everything that he legally can. The pharmacist is the selfish or heartless one.
	Stage 4	<i>Law-and-social-order-maintaining orientation</i> — maintaining social order or doing one's duty is 'good'	
	Decision	'Steal it'	'Don't steal it'

Reason	He should steal it. If he did nothing he would be letting his wife die. It's his responsibility if she dies. He has to take it with the idea of paying the pharmacist back later when he has the money.	It is a natural thing for Heinz to want to save his wife, but it's always wrong to steal. He knows he will be stealing and taking a valuable drug from the man who made it.
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Stage 5 ***Legalistic–social–contract orientation — values agreed on by society including individual rights determine what is ‘good’***

Decision	‘Steal it’	‘Don’t steal it’
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Reason	The law wasn’t set up for these circumstances. Taking the drug in this situation isn’t really right, but he’s justified in doing it.	You can’t completely blame someone for stealing, but even extreme circumstances don’t justify taking the law into your own hands. You can’t have everyone stealing whenever they get desperate.
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Postconventional level (16+ years)

Stage 6 ***Universal–ethical orientation — what is ‘right’ is a matter of conscience and what’s best for all people***

Decision	‘Steal it’	‘Don’t steal it’
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Reason	This is a situation which forces him to choose between stealing and letting his wife die. In a situation where the choice must be made, it is morally right to steal. He has to act to preserve and respect life.	Heinz is faced with the decision of whether to consider the other people who need the drug just as badly as his wife. Heinz ought to act not according to his particular feelings toward his wife, but considering the values of all the people involved.
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The teacher's dilemma

Mr Fisher is a secondary school maths teacher. Jim is one of his brightest students but has not worked very hard in the first half of the year. In his final year 11 maths exam, Jim scored 48%, which was not a pass. Before sitting the exam, Jim told Mr Fisher that he needed to pass maths in order to get an apprenticeship and get into the trade course he has always wanted to do.

Mr Fisher knows that if Jim fails maths, he will not get into the trade course. He also believes that Jim will end up unemployed. Mr Fisher wonders whether he should change Jim's mark so that he passes maths.

Response sheet

1. What should Mr Fisher do?

☐ Change Jim's mark so that he passes maths

☐ Not change Jim's mark which means that Jim fails maths

2. Briefly explain the reason for your decision and how you worked out what Mr Fisher should do.

3. Here are some statements that other people have said are important when thinking about this dilemma. Rank them in order of importance by giving each statement a number according to how important it was when making your decision. A rating of 1 means most important and 5 means least important.
- Mr F should follow his professional standards.
 - Mr F should think about the consequences for himself.
 - Mr F should consider what action other teachers would approve of.
 - Mr F should consider what action will most benefit all people in the school.
 - Mr F should consider what action would be most consistent with his own moral beliefs.

Scoring question 3

In the list below are the moral developmental levels which correspond to the statements (a) to (e) in question 3. Use this information together with each participant's answers for question 2 to estimate their level of moral reasoning according to Kohlberg's theory.

Key to Kohlberg's stages for question 3

- a. Conventional level
- b. Preconventional level
- c. Conventional level
- d. Postconventional level
- e. Postconventional level

On the basis of each participant's responses to questions 2 and 3, assign them to one of Kohlberg's three levels of moral reasoning.

Kohlberg and Piaget: differences and similarities

Iordanis Kavathatzopoulos

Abstract

Kohlberg's cognitive-stage-developmental theory is often described as a further development of Piaget's moral theory. In discussing the two theories, it is shown that Kohlberg attempts to describe the features of moral thought and not the formation of the independent moral function. Nevertheless, Kohlberg's later research, as well as research done by his disciples, approaches Piaget. In trying to study the issue of moral education in 'just communities', they reintroduce the Piagetian concept of cooperation in equality among the members of the group, and they use a collaborator or leader. However, their main interest remains in the description of the characteristics of the stages of individual moral reasoning and valuing of norms and community, and not the study of the process of acceleration towards the autonomous moral phase.

How to Compare and Contrast Piaget and Kohlberg

By Rebeca Renata

Compare and Contrast Piaget and Kohlberg

Jean Piaget was a Swiss developmental psychologist born in 1896 who is famous for his theories of child development. Piaget's theories focused on the cognitive and moral development of children as they interact with their biological environment. He was the first to put forth the theory that children develop in specific stages. Lawrence Kohlberg was an American developmental psychologist born in 1927 whose primary focus was on how children develop a sense of morality. The theories of Kohlberg are based on those of Piaget, although their theories and approaches differ as well.

Consider Piaget's theory of moral development. Explain that for Piaget moral development occurs in two distinct stages. Piaget theory is that young children believe that rules are dictated by either their parents or by God. Young children base their moral judgments on consequences rather than intentions. Clarify that for Piaget this way of thinking about morality changes for children around age 10, when they start to understand that morals are based on their own judgments and intentions. Explain that for Piaget the point is that children move from a concrete understanding of morality to a

more abstract one, where they realize that rules are not absolute but are ways for humans to cooperate and get along.

Look at Kohlberg's theory of moral development. Notice that Kohlberg built upon Piaget's theory, but offers a more sophisticated understanding of childhood morality, in a six-stage model. Contrast this to Piaget's two-stage model. Notice that like Piaget, Kohlberg saw children's beginning understanding of morality as having to do with rules and consequences. Notice too that Kohlberg believed that children struggle, over time, with issues connected to morality such as individual rights, relationships, social order and universality. Note that Kohlberg's theory offers more detail and a deeper understanding of human development of morality than Piaget's.

Compare the work of Kohlberg and Piaget as stage theorists. Piaget was the first psychologist to postulate a stage theory of cognitive development. For Piaget, children develop intellectually in a hierarchical manner, in four specific stages ranging from infancy to adolescents. Contrast this to Kohlberg's five stages of moral development. These are also hierarchical but unlike Piaget do not specify age ranges. Note that Kohlberg's stages also allow for development of morality throughout the life span, not just until adolescence. Notice that for Kohlberg stages of moral development stem from socialization. That is, interactions with parents, teachers and peers lead to the individual's understanding of what is morally right and wrong. Contrast this with Piaget's theory of cognitive development in which intelligence develops in conjunction with biological development.

Developmental Psychology

Biological perspective: Focuses on how heredity and other biological factors influence the development i.e. how genes affect development of intelligence

Behavioural perspective: How behaviour is acquired or changes as a result of environmental influences, particularly learning.

Cognitive perspective: Focuses on changes in how we acquire, process, remember and use information through our lifespan.

Socio-cultural perspective: Focuses on the specific environmental factors on development, such as gender, age, race, culture and income.

Study methods

Longitudinal and cross-sectional methods

Cohort sequential methods

Twin studies (monozygotic and dizygotic twins)

Adoption studies

Theories of Psychological development

Perceptual development:

Eleanor Gibson (1910-2002) - all senses are functioning at birth.

Affective explorer – constantly monitoring environment

Affordance – properties that suggest how something could be used

Differentiated – how is something different?

Emotional development:

John Bowlby (1907 – 1990) – attachment theory

Proximity maintenance

Safe haven

Secure base

Separation distress (Mary Ainsworth – Strange Situation Test)

Secure attachment – balance between dependence and exploration

Avoidant attachment – caregiver treated as a stranger

Resistant attachment – anxious even when caregiver is near

Harlow's monkeys

Cognitive development:

Jean Piaget (1896 – 1980) – four stage theory

Sensorimotor stage (0 – 2 years) – ‘object permanence’ and ‘goal directed behaviour’

Pre-operational stage (2 – 7 years) – ‘symbolic thinking’ (pretend play), ‘egocentrism’ (see the world from their point of view), ‘decentring’, ‘animism’ (naughty table!), ‘transformation’ (ice to water), ‘centration’ (water in glasses), ‘reversibility’ (brother called Jack).

Concrete operational (7 – 12 years) – ‘conservation’ (water in glasses – they’re the same), ‘classification’ (coloured beads)

Formal operational (12+ years) – ‘abstract thinking’ (what is honesty?), ‘logical thinking’ (time and distance – 400BC)

Criticism – small sample size

Moral development:

Lawrence Kohlberg (1927 – 1987) Heinz

Pre-conventional level (0 – 9 years):	stage one:	obedience and punishment
	stage two:	naively egotistical
Conventional level (9 – 15 years) :	stage three:	good boy/nice girl
	stage four:	law and social order maintaining
Post conventional level (16+ years):	stage five:	legalistic social contract (follow laws)
	stage six:	universal ethical

Psychosocial development:

Erik Erikson (1902 – 1994) psychosocial crisis – 8 stages (Grivas pg 207 – Learning activity 5.30)

1. 0 -12 to18 months	early infancy	trust vs mistrust
2. 18 months to 3 years	late infancy	autonomy vs shame or doubt
3. 3 to 5 years	early childhood	initiative vs guilt
4. 5 to12 years	late childhood	industry vs inferiority
5. 12 to18 years	adolescence	identity vs identity confusion
6. 18 to 25 years	young adulthood	intimacy vs isolation
7. 25 to 65 years	adulthood	generativity vs stagnation
8. 65+ years	late adulthood	integrity vs despair

LEARNING ACTIVITY 5:23

Visual presentation — Piaget's stages of cognitive development

Draw a picture, take a photo or download an image that depicts a key accomplishment of each of Piaget's stages of cognitive development. Present your graphic representation of Piaget's stages in a sequential way with a brief summary of the stage and accomplishment beneath each image.

LEARNING ACTIVITY 5:24

Visual presentation — advertising an educational toy

Select an educational toy that promotes development in an infant or a young child. Develop an advertisement to promote the toy. In your promotion, identify the age range of the children for whom it is appropriate. You should also indicate why it would be appropriate for children of that age, with reference to Piaget's theory of cognitive development.

LEARNING ACTIVITY 5:25

Reflection

Comment on whether teachers should consider Piaget's theory when planning their courses and lessons. Differentiate between primary and secondary schools if you think it relevant. You may also consider relevance to tertiary educators.

LEARNING ACTIVITY 5:26

Media analysis/response

Many YouTube videos demonstrate key cognitive abilities or accomplishments in each of Piaget's stages. Some have been prepared by professionals for educational purposes and others by parents. Some are more informative or accurate than others.

Find a short non-professional video on each of the following:

- object permanence
- conservation of volume
- classification

For each video:

- name the cognitive ability
- identify the stage and approximate age when it is accomplished
- outline the task shown
- identify the author
- comment on how accurately the video represents the ability and its accomplishment
- include a weblink.

PSYCHOSOCIAL DEVELOPMENT

Like Piaget, the German-born psychologist and psychoanalyst Erik Erikson (1902–1994) developed a stage theory of development, but focusing on personality development. His theory describes the impact of certain social experiences on personality development at various stages of the entire lifespan.

Erikson (1950) based his theory on extensive research mainly using case studies. He studied a range of people living in different cultures (for example, Denmark, Germany, wealthy American adolescents and indigenous Sioux Indians). He also made intensive studies of the lives of important historical figures (such as Martin Luther King who led

the freedom movement for African-Americans in the 1950s and 1960s).

Erikson believed that personality development occurs through a combination of the effects of psychological processes which take place within individuals (*psycho*) and the experiences of individuals during their lifetimes, particularly their interaction with other people (*social*). This is why he called his theory **psychosocial development**.

Erikson viewed psychosocial development as a progression through eight sequential stages, with each stage corresponding with a different period in the lifespan. In each of these stages, the individual has to deal with a different psychosocial crisis that is normal for people at that time in life.

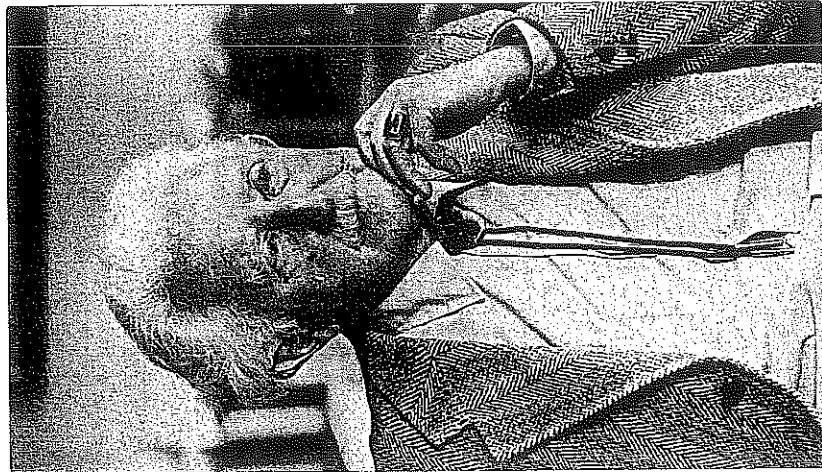


Figure 5.58 Erik Erikson (1902–1994)

eGuidePlus

Weblink
Video showing an overview of Erikson's theory 6m 3s

Table 5.4 Erikson's eight psychosocial stages

Stage	Age	Developmental period	Psychosocial crisis
1	birth to 12–18 months	early infancy	trust vs mistrust
2	18 months to 3 years	late infancy	autonomy vs shame and doubt
3	3 to 5 years	early childhood	initiative vs guilt
4	5 to 12 years	middle and late childhood	industry vs inferiority
5	12 to 18 years	adolescence	identity vs role confusion
6	18 to 25 years	young adulthood	intimacy vs isolation
7	25 to 65 years	adulthood	generativity vs stagnation
8	65+ years	late adulthood	integrity vs despair

A psychosocial crisis is a personal conflict an individual faces in adjusting to society. Each crisis involves a struggle between two opposing tendencies, one of which comes from our internal personal needs and the other from the demands of society, but both are experienced by the person.

According to Erikson, our personality is shaped by how we deal with or resolve the psychosocial crises. The satisfactory resolution of these crises leads to a healthy personality and a productive lifestyle.

In Erikson's theory, a crisis is not a catastrophe but a turning point in life. The way in which each crisis is resolved can have either a *positive* (good) or *negative* (bad) outcome, depending on the individual's ability to deal with that crisis.

Erikson used the term crisis in the way that doctors do. A crisis is like a patient being in a 'serious condition' for a period of time, at the end of which the patient takes a turn for the better or worse.

However, Erikson did not believe that failure to resolve any psychosocial crisis will necessarily have consequences which are permanent or irreversible. He believed that setbacks in any stage can eventually be overcome with proper attention, care and love.

As shown in Table 5.4, each of the eight crises involves a conflict between two characteristics which are the opposite of one another. One is a positive aspect and the other a negative aspect. Erikson believed that successful resolution of each crisis should be in favour of the positive characteristic. Erikson added, however, that the opposite negative aspect must also exist to some degree if healthy personality development is to occur. Therefore, resolution of the trust versus mistrust crisis in stage 1 involves developing the right mix of trust (to allow intimate relationships) and mistrust (for self-protection).

According to Erikson, the ages at which people go through each of the eight stages can vary because of each individual's unique life experiences. However, the order in which individuals progress through the stages is fixed. Erikson believed that it is necessary to experience each crisis (but not necessarily to resolve each crisis) before proceeding to the next stage.

Erikson also believed that different stages can overlap, so it is possible for an individual to be dealing with more than one crisis at any

particular time. For example, the crisis of trust versus mistrust in stage one is not necessarily resolved during the first 18 months of life. It can arise again in each successive psychosocial stage. It is possible to gain basic trust in early infancy then lose it later because of a negative experience with someone in a later stage in life. In addition, an individual may fail to resolve a crisis at one time but resolve that crisis in a later stage.

Erikson's description of the eight psychosocial stages is a 'picture' of what is *ideal*. According to Erikson, the better an individual deals with a

psychosocial crisis in any stage, the healthier their psychosocial development and therefore personality development. However, not being able to resolve a crisis does not prevent the individual from moving into the next stage. Regardless of whether a psychosocial conflict is successfully resolved, individuals move into the next psychosocial stage because they mature and because of their changing social situations. However, according to Erikson, if a conflict is not resolved, it will have a negative effect on the individual's personality development and adjustment to society.

LEARNING ACTIVITY 5.27

Review questions

1. Explain the meaning of psychosocial development.
2. Describe the relationship between psychosocial development and personality development.
3. What was Erikson's main source of research data?
4. (a) What is a psychosocial crisis and why is it said to occur?
(b) Give an example of a psychosocial crisis.

Stage 1: Trust versus Mistrust (0 to 12-18 months)

Stage 1 involves a conflict between trust at one extreme and mistrust at the other. According to Erikson, to progress through this stage in the best way, the infant needs to develop the right balance of trust and mistrust.

Erikson used the term **trust** broadly to refer to the views and expectations that infants develop about their world. He believed that when an infant has developed a healthy sense of trust, they will view the world as a predictable, safe, caring and happy place. When the world is predictable, the infant can anticipate reactions; for example, being able to rely on being fed when hungry, knowing that a cuddle and care will be given when they are hurt, or that help will arrive if they are stuck under a chair while crawling around a room. A predictable world also includes the knowledge that a frown or a firm 'no' will be a consequence of inappropriate behaviour.

According to Erikson, if an infant is to develop into a person who is trusting and trustworthy, the quality of care they receive is important. The infant whose needs are met when they arise, whose discomforts are quickly removed, who is cuddled, played with and talked to, forms a view of the world as a safe place and of people as caring, helpful and dependable.

Sometimes an infant's cry is answered immediately, sometimes it is ignored briefly then answered and sometimes the crying infant can be ignored and left for long periods. When infants' needs are not consistently

5. What is meant by the idea that resolution of a crisis should include the 'right mix' of both the positive and negative aspects? Explain with reference to an example.
6. How often might a particular psychosocial crisis occur in the course of a lifetime?

recognised, their world can become unreliable and unpredictable. When care is inadequate, irregular or even rejecting, **mistrust** can develop. According to Erikson, if infants develop a strong sense of mistrust, they will become anxious and insecure. They may become fearful and suspicious toward the world and people in it, and this may continue to later stages of psychosocial development.



Figure 5.59 Infants develop trust when their world is predictable; for example, being able to rely on being cuddled when they need it.

Erikson believed that, under certain circumstances, developing a sense of mistrust rather than trust can form the basis of antisocial behaviour later in life. On the other hand, trust in infancy builds the foundation for a lifelong expectation that the world will be a good and safe place.

The trust versus mistrust crisis is generally not resolved totally in infancy. It can arise again in later stages. For example, children who enter school with a sense of mistrust may, over time, learn to trust teachers who take the time to show them that they are trustworthy. It is also possible to gain basic trust in infancy and lose it later. Sometimes people who develop a sense of trust in infancy can lose it because of experiences later in life; for example, if a trusted partner betrays you by cheating on you.

Stage 2: Autonomy versus Shame and doubt (12-18 months to 3 years)

Stage 2 involves a conflict between autonomy at one extreme and shame and doubt at the other. Erikson believed that successful attempts by infants to establish their independence as they become increasingly mobile and competent during these years contributes to a sense of autonomy.

Autonomy refers to the ability to do things independently and the feelings of self-control, self-confidence, self-reliance and competence which accompanies this. We have autonomy when we are in a position to make our own choices and act on those choices; for example, when we choose to stay where we are or to go somewhere else, or when we choose to do some particular thing or not to do it.

Alternatively, a sense of being too dependent on others can lead to a lack of self-confidence, self-consciousness and feelings of shame and doubt about our capabilities. Although it is desirable for autonomy to be developed in stage 2, Erikson believed that a certain amount of self-doubt about our capabilities is appropriate. Infants need to know the right balance between what they can do, what's safe to do and what they should do, compared with the activities for which they are not yet ready.

According to Erikson, the psychosocial crisis of autonomy versus shame and doubt is based on the infant's developing motor and cognitive abilities. This is the time when infants gain more and more control over their bodies and aspects of their behaviour. They learn to control some of their impulses and to feel pride in their accomplishments. Toddlers begin toilet training in this stage and exercise autonomy when they gain some control over their bowel and bladder. Both to toddlers and to caregivers this is an important achievement. Language skills are also important in developing autonomy. As infants get better at making themselves understood, they feel more powerful and become more independent.

During the second year of life, when infants can move about on their own and have discovered that they can cause events to occur, they begin to show their independence. They often want to explore, investigate and do things by themselves. The infant not only talks and walks, but also climbs, opens and closes things, pushes and pulls, holds and lets go. They take pride in these new accomplishments and often want to do things without help; for example, feeding themselves, buttoning clothes or flushing the toilet. In many respects, this second psychosocial stage is an 'all by myself' period.

Autonomy builds on the sense of trust developed in the first stage. Erikson believed that infants who have a well-developed sense of trust are also best prepared to become autonomous. This is because the caregiver is seen as a safe 'base' from which the infant can explore the world with increasing independence.

As time passes, these infants move further from their caregivers, often happily playing by themselves with only occasional glances to check that safety and security are nearby. By gently encouraging independence, by not immediately responding to every single request from the infant and by respecting the fact that the infant is an active, inquisitive person, caregivers promote the infant's development of autonomy.



Figure 5.60 An infant's eagerness to use a spoon to eat demonstrates their increasing autonomy.

Stage 5: Identity versus Role confusion (12-18 years)

Stage 5 involves resolving the conflict between identity at one extreme and role confusion at the other. During this period, which corresponds with adolescence, the psychosocial crisis is about developing a sense of identity. Failure to resolve this crisis produces some degree of 'role confusion'.

Erikson used the term *identity* to refer to the overall image individuals have of themselves. He believed that identity is something all people seek and that the search for identity is a lifelong search. However, it first comes into focus during adolescence.

During adolescence, the individual matures cognitively as well as emotionally and physically. In addition to the new feelings, sensations and desires that are experienced as a result of bodily changes, the adolescent develops a variety of new ways of looking at and thinking about the world. Among other things, adolescents can think about how other people think and contemplate what others think of them. They can also form clear ideas about ideal families, religions, cultures and societies which they can then compare with their own experiences of family, religion, cultures and societies.

Erikson believed that the task of this fifth stage is for adolescents to use their cognitive abilities to bring together all the things they have learned about themselves in the various roles they have undertaken in life; for example, as a son or daughter, brother or sister, student, sportsperson, friend, leader, follower, musician, employee and so on. The different images of the self learned through these different roles need to be combined into a complete image of the whole person that makes sense and that shows continuity with the past while preparing for the future. The adolescents who succeed at this task develop a psychosocial identity, a sense of who they are, where they have been and where they want to go in life.

If the person has reached adolescence with a healthy sense of trust, autonomy, initiative and industry, then their chances of developing a meaningful sense of identity are much better. The opposite is true for the person who enters adolescence with considerable mistrust, shame, doubt, guilt and inferiority. According to Erikson, preparation for a successful adolescence and forming an integrated psychosocial identity must, therefore, begin in infancy.

When young people do not attain a sense of personal identity, they show a certain amount of *role confusion* – a sense of not knowing who they are, where they belong, to whom they belong or where they are headed in life. According to Erikson, such confusion is often seen in 'delinquent young people'. Some young people seek a 'negative

identity' opposite to the one that their parents and relatives would prefer them to have; for example, an identity as a 'delinquent', 'metal head' or a 'petrol head'.

Role confusion may also be evident when a young person takes an excessively long time to reach adulthood. However, a certain amount of role confusion is normal and, according to Erikson, helps explain the inconsistency, or changeable nature, of much adolescent behaviour, as well as adolescents' self-consciousness about their appearance.

Failure to establish a clear sense of personal identity during adolescence does not mean that a person is a failure or will never establish a strong sense of who they are. People who attain a sense of identity in adolescence will still come across challenges to that identity as they move through life (Elkind, 1971; Grotevant, 1992; Harter, 1990).



Figure 5.63 Role confusion can cause some young people to adopt a 'negative identity', which is opposite to their parents' preferences.

Stage 6: Intimacy versus Isolation (18-25 years)

The sixth stage of psychosocial development involves a conflict between intimacy at one extreme and isolation at the other. Failure to resolve this conflict results in avoiding interpersonal relationships and experiencing a sense of isolation. Erikson used the term *intimacy* to refer to the ability to share with and care about another person without fear of losing oneself in the process. Isolation refers to the sense of being alone without anyone to share one's life with or care for.

During later adolescence and the early years of adulthood, it becomes possible for the first time to engage in a truly intimate relationship with another person outside the family; to love another person for their real qualities and not just for the satisfaction that can be obtained from the relationship.

According to Erikson, this kind of relationship cannot occur earlier in life because a person cannot establish true intimacy without first developing a strong sense of personal identity and independence and being secure in their place in the world. People who do not fully understand who they are find it difficult to deal with the complete and open sharing that is required in an intimate relationship.

Erikson's description of intimacy versus isolation may provide some insight into people who avoid commitment to another person in a relationship. Furthermore, a person without a strong sense of identity tends to frequently seek praise, flattery and adoration from others, and this interferes with the shared commitment and honest communication that are essential for an intimate relationship to develop and last. People who lack a sense of identity tend to isolate themselves, or form superficial or shallow relationships with others (Grotevant, 1992; Morris, 1990).

According to Erikson, intimacy does not necessarily involve sex and it includes the relationship between friends. For example, soldiers who have served together under the most dangerous circumstances often develop a sense of commitment to one another that illustrates intimacy in its broadest sense. If a sense of intimacy is not established with friends or a partner, the result, in Erikson's view, is a sense of isolation (Elkind, 1971).

As with other psychosocial crises, the development of intimacy does not occur only during the stages of late adolescence and young adulthood. Nor do individuals stop seeking intimacy after the early adulthood stage. Intimacy, like identity, continually changes over time and is influenced by experiences later in life.



Figure 5.64 Intimacy involves sharing and caring with someone else without fear of losing oneself in the process.

At the other extreme is the individual who looks back on life with a sense of despair. Despair involves bitter feelings of hopelessness, involving lost opportunities, mistakes that were made and the sense that life has been meaningless and empty. In the latter years of life, the individual may realise with despair that time seems to have run out and it is too late to do all the things they want to do.

While a person must achieve a greater sense of integrity than despair for the successful resolution of the final crisis, Erikson believed that some despair is inevitable. For example, he suggested that even if someone felt completely fulfilled with their life, the fact that other people have suffered throughout their lives may make them feel some despair.

Criticisms of Erikson's theory

Erikson's psychosocial theory provides a useful outline for understanding aspects of personality development and interpreting some of the major changes that occur at different times throughout the lifespan. Unlike many other theories on development, Erikson's theory describes changes which take place across the entire lifespan from birth to older age.

Another positive feature is that it describes how healthy personality development is achieved. For example, the theory explains how each stage of development can have a positive outcome as well as a negative outcome. Many other theories of personality, including widely adopted contemporary theories such as the Five Factor Model on page 13 focus on assessing and describing personality, overlooking factors influencing development.

Criticisms of Erikson's theory have been based on the lack of experimental evidence to support it. The theory is developed mainly from case studies of people in several different cultures and on Erikson's experiences with individuals he counselled, rather than scientifically controlled research.

Experimental evidence for the theory has been difficult to obtain. For example, it is hard to define 'trust' or 'generativity' precisely enough for thorough scientific testing under controlled conditions. However, in the past 20 or so years, various research attempts have been made to test Erikson's

theory using cross-sectional and longitudinal studies. Findings from these studies provide some empirical evidence that supports various aspects of Erikson's theory (Bradley & Marcia, 1998; Marcia, 1999).

Another criticism of Erikson's theory is that it does not consider how socio-cultural influences can have differing effects on males and females. For example, the theory does not describe female personality development in general and primarily focuses on males.

Criticisms have also been made about more specific aspects of the theory; for example, Erikson's belief that identity is found in adolescence.

Australian psychologists Lindsay Gettling and Desmond Hatchard (1989) have argued that people continue their search for identity well into young adulthood. They also criticise Erikson's theory for overlooking the role of work in identity formation of the young adult. They believe this is a big gap in the theory, especially as Erikson strongly argued about the importance of industry in childhood and the importance of career preparation in adolescence.

Many recent studies of adult development have shown that undertaking a career during adulthood is a major path in the search for identity. Furthermore, experiences at the workplace can affect our personality development as much as people with whom we have relationships. Erikson's theory states that all people experience a 'mid-life crisis' during adulthood. However, research which has tested this proposal suggests that this is not the case. Many adults do not experience a mid-life crisis, both in Western societies and in many non-Western societies and cultures (Costa & McCrae, 1994).

Erikson's theory prompted and continues to stimulate considerable research since it was first published. For example, some psychologists have studied ways in which specific life and cultural experiences affect personality development. It has been found that *when* and *where* people are born and grow up can significantly influence personality development (Elder, 1998). For example, people who were children during the Great Depression (1929-39), when they had very little, were always careful with their money even when they were financially secure years later.

LEARNING ACTIVITY 5.28

eBookPlus

Word copy of table

Review questions

1. Complete the following table to summarise Erikson's psychosocial theory of personality development by including a name and description of each psychosocial crisis.

Stage	Age	Developmental period	Psychosocial crisis	Description of crisis
1	Birth to 12-18 months	Early infancy		
2	18 months-3 years	Late infancy		
3	3-5 years	Early childhood		
4	5-12 years	Middle and late childhood		
5	12-18 years	Adolescence		
6	18-25 years	Young adulthood		
7	25-65 years	Adulthood		
8	65+ years	Late adulthood		

2. Identify the psychosocial crisis most likely to be unresolved in each of the following examples. Explain the person's feelings and behaviour in terms of Erikson's theory.

- (a) A new employee is reluctant to do a task on their own for fear of making a mistake.
- (b) A 38-year-old has had three broken engagements in the past 10 years.
- (c) A solicitor decides to take up politics and runs for a state government seat in parliament because she is passionate about 'making a difference' to the environment.
- (d) An adolescent boy is reluctant to develop friendships with females after his girlfriend was unfaithful.
- (e) An adult wishes they could relive their working life so they could do it better.
- (f) A 10-year-old continually misbehaves in class to avoid doing schoolwork.
- (g) An adolescent always waits to be asked to join in social activities.
- (h) An adolescent goes through a 'stage' of wearing black clothes.

3. Describe three criticisms that have been made of Erikson's theory.

4. Why is it important for a theory to be based on experimental research evidence?

LEARNING ACTIVITY 5.29

Reflection

What insight has Erikson's theory enabled about your own personality development? How useful is it for describing your personality?

LEARNING ACTIVITY 5.30

Role play — interview with a developmental theorist

Working with a partner, prepare a five- to 10-minute interview conducted by a science journalist with Piaget, Erikson or another developmental theorist you have studied.

In your interview, ensure you include one or more questions on each of the following topics:

1. what the theory is about
2. how development occurs
3. key concepts in the theory
4. everyday examples to describe the theory
5. research findings that may or may not support the theory
6. possible limitations or criticisms of the theory
7. possible areas for further research
8. other relevant information.

Erik Erikson's Stages of Psychosocial Development

 [simplypsychology.org/Erik-Erikson.html](https://www.simplypsychology.org/Erik-Erikson.html)

September 17, 2008



Developmental Psychology » Erik Erikson

by Saul McLeod, updated May 03, 2018

Erikson's (1959) theory of psychosocial development has eight distinct stages, taking in five stages up to the age of 18 years and three further stages beyond, well into adulthood.

Like Freud and many others, Erik Erikson maintained that personality develops in a predetermined order, and builds upon each previous stage. This is called the epigenetic principle.

During each stage, the person experiences a psychosocial crisis which could have a positive or negative outcome for personality development. For Erikson (1963), these crises are of a psychosocial nature because they involve psychological needs of the individual (i.e. psycho) conflicting with the needs of society (i.e. social).

According to the theory, successful completion of each stage results in a healthy personality and the acquisition of basic virtues. Basic virtues are characteristic strengths which the ego can use to resolve subsequent crises.

Failure to successfully complete a stage can result in a reduced ability to complete further stages and therefore a more unhealthy personality and sense of self. These stages, however, can be resolved successfully at a later time.

Stage	Psychosocial Crisis	Basic Virtue	Age
1.	Trust vs. Mistrust	Hope	0 - 1½
2.	Autonomy vs. Shame	Will	1½ - 3
3.	Initiative vs. Guilt	Purpose	3 - 5
4.	Industry vs. Inferiority	Competency	5 - 12
5.	Identity vs. Role Confusion	Fidelity	12 - 18
6.	Intimacy vs. Isolation	Love	18 - 40
7.	Generativity vs. Stagnation	Care	40 - 65
8.	Ego Integrity vs. Despair	Wisdom	65+

1. Trust vs. Mistrust

Is the world a safe place or is it full of unpredictable events and accidents waiting to happen? Erikson's first psychosocial crisis occurs during the first year or so of life (like Freud's oral stage of psychosexual development). The crisis is one of trust vs. mistrust.

During this stage, the infant is uncertain about the world in which they live. To resolve these feelings of uncertainty, the infant looks towards their primary caregiver for stability and consistency of care.

If the care the infant receives is consistent, predictable and reliable, they will develop a sense of trust which will carry with them to other relationships, and they will be able to feel secure even when threatened.



Success in this stage will lead to the virtue of **hope**. By developing a sense of trust, the infant can have hope that as new crises arise, there is a real possibility that other people will be there as a source of support. Failing to acquire the virtue of hope will lead to the development of fear.

For example, if the care has been harsh or inconsistent, unpredictable and unreliable, then the infant will develop a sense of mistrust and will not have confidence in the world around them or in their abilities to influence events.

This infant will carry the basic sense of mistrust with them to other relationships. It may result in anxiety, heightened insecurities, and an over feeling of mistrust in the world around them.

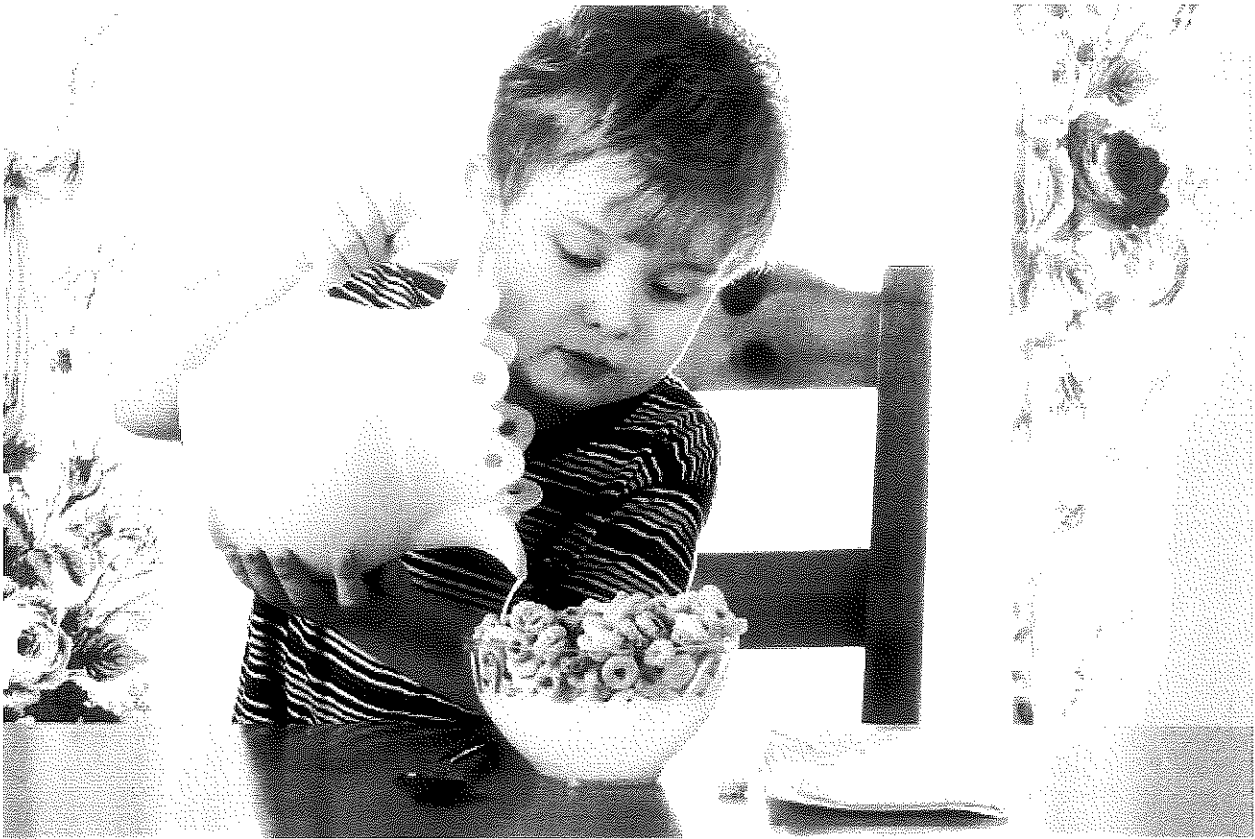
Consistent with Erikson's views on the importance of trust, research by Bowlby and Ainsworth has outlined how the quality of the early experience of attachment can affect relationships with others in later life.

2. Autonomy vs. Shame and Doubt

Autonomy versus shame and doubt is the second stage of Erik Erikson's stages of psychosocial development. This stage occurs between the ages of 18 months to approximately 3 years.

The child is developing physically and becoming more mobile, and discovering that he or she has many skills and abilities, such as putting on clothes and shoes, playing with toys, etc. Such skills illustrate the child's growing sense of independence and autonomy.

For example, during this stage children begin to assert their independence, by walking away from their mother, picking which toy to play with, and making choices about what they like to wear, to eat, etc.



Erikson states it is critical that parents allow their children to explore the limits of their abilities within an encouraging environment which is tolerant of failure.

For example, rather than put on a child's clothes a supportive parent should have the patience to allow the child to try until they succeed or ask for assistance. So, the parents need to encourage the child to become more independent while at the same time protecting the child so that constant failure is avoided.

A delicate balance is required from the parent. They must try not to do everything for the child, but if the child fails at a particular task they must not criticize the child for failures and accidents (particularly when toilet training). The aim has to be "self control without a loss of self-esteem" (Gross, 1992). Success in this stage will lead to the virtue of **will**.

If children in this stage are encouraged and supported in their increased independence, they become more confident and secure in their own ability to survive in the world.

If children are criticized, overly controlled, or not given the opportunity to assert themselves, they begin to feel inadequate in their ability to survive, and may then become overly dependent upon others, lack self-esteem, and feel a sense of shame or doubt in their abilities.

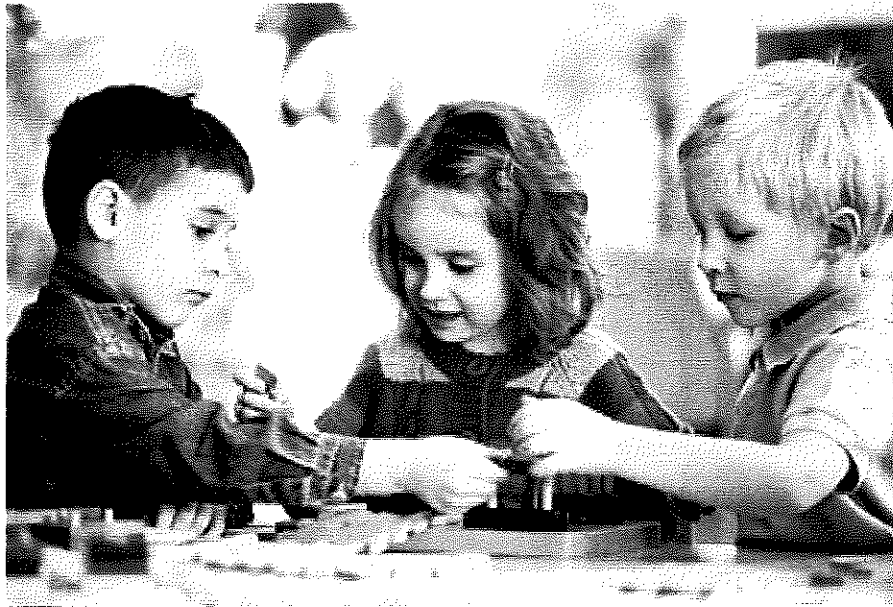
3. Initiative vs. Guilt

- Initiative versus guilt is the third stage of Erik Erikson's theory of psychosocial development.
- During the initiative versus guilt stage, children assert themselves more frequently.

These are particularly lively, rapid-developing years in a child's life. According to Bee (1992), it is a "time of vigor of action and of behaviors that the parents may see as aggressive."

During this period the primary feature involves the child regularly interacting with other children at school. Central to this stage is play, as it provides children with the opportunity to explore their interpersonal skills through initiating activities.

Children begin to plan activities, make up games, and initiate activities with others. If given this opportunity, children develop a sense of initiative and feel secure in their ability to lead others and make decisions.



Conversely, if this tendency is squelched, either through criticism or control, children develop a sense of guilt. They may feel like a nuisance to others and will, therefore, remain followers, lacking in self-initiative.

The child takes initiatives which the parents will often try to stop in order to protect the child. The child will often overstep the mark in his forcefulness, and the danger is that the parents will tend to punish the child and restrict his initiatives too much.

It is at this stage that the child will begin to ask many questions as his thirst for knowledge grows. If the parents treat the child's questions as trivial, a nuisance or embarrassing or other aspects of their behavior as threatening then the child may have feelings of guilt for "being a nuisance".

Too much guilt can make the child slow to interact with others and may inhibit their creativity. Some guilt is, of course, necessary; otherwise the child would not know how to exercise self-control or have a conscience.

A healthy balance between initiative and guilt is important. Success in this stage will lead to the virtue of **purpose**.

4. Industry vs. Inferiority

- Erikson's fourth psychosocial crisis, involving industry vs. inferiority occurs during childhood between the ages of five and twelve.

Children are at the stage where they will be learning to read and write, to do sums, to do things on their own. Teachers begin to take an important role in the child's life as they teach the child specific skills.

It is at this stage that the child's peer group will gain greater significance and will become a major source of the child's self-esteem. The child now feels the need to win approval by demonstrating specific competencies that are valued by society and begin to develop a sense of pride in their accomplishments.

If children are encouraged and reinforced for their initiative, they begin to feel industrious (competent) and feel confident in their ability to achieve goals. If this initiative is not encouraged, if it is restricted by parents or teacher, then the child begins to feel inferior, doubting his own abilities and therefore may not reach his or her potential.

If the child cannot develop the specific skill they feel society is demanding (e.g., being athletic) then they may develop a sense of inferiority.

Some failure may be necessary so that the child can develop some modesty. Again, a balance between competence and modesty is necessary. Success in this stage will lead to the virtue of **competence**.

5. Identity vs. Role Confusion

During adolescence, the transition from childhood to adulthood is most important. Children are becoming more independent, and begin to look at the future in terms of career, relationships, families, housing, etc. The individual wants to belong to a society and fit in.

The fifth stage is identity vs. role confusion, and it occurs during adolescence, from about 12-18 years. During this stage, adolescents search for a sense of self and personal identity, through an intense exploration of personal values, beliefs, and goals.

The adolescent mind is essentially a mind or moratorium, a psychosocial stage between childhood and adulthood, and between the morality learned by the child, and the ethics to be developed by the adult (Erikson, 1963, p. 245)

This is a major stage of development where the child has to learn the roles he will occupy as an adult. It is during this stage that the adolescent will re-examine his identity and try to find out exactly who he or she is. Erikson suggests that two identities are involved: the sexual and the occupational.

According to Bee (1992), what should happen at the end of this stage is "a reintegrated sense of self, of what one wants to do or be, and of one's appropriate sex role". During this stage the body image of the adolescent changes.



Erikson claims that the adolescent may feel uncomfortable about their body for a while until they can adapt and "grow into" the changes. Success in this stage will lead to the virtue of **fidelity**.

Fidelity involves being able to commit one's self to others on the basis of accepting others, even when there may be ideological differences.

During this period, they explore possibilities and begin to form their own identity based upon the outcome of their explorations. Failure to establish a sense of identity within society ("I don't know what I want to be when I grow up") can lead to role confusion. Role confusion involves the individual not being sure about themselves or their place in society.

In response to role confusion or **identity crisis**, an adolescent may begin to experiment with different lifestyles (e.g., work, education or political activities).

Also pressuring someone into an identity can result in rebellion in the form of establishing a negative identity, and in addition to this feeling of unhappiness.

6. Intimacy vs. Isolation

- Intimacy versus isolation is the sixth stage of Erik Erikson's theory of psychosocial development. This stage takes place during young adulthood between the ages of approximately 18 to 40 yrs.

During this period, the major conflict centers on forming intimate, loving relationships with other people.

During this period, we begin to share ourselves more intimately with others. We explore relationships leading toward longer-term commitments with someone other than a family member.

Successful completion of this stage can result in happy relationships and a sense of commitment, safety, and care within a relationship.

Avoiding intimacy, fearing commitment and relationships can lead to isolation, loneliness, and sometimes depression. Success in this stage will lead to the virtue of **love**.

7. Generativity vs. Stagnation

Generativity versus stagnation is the seventh of eight stages of Erik Erikson's theory of psychosocial development. This stage takes place during middle adulthood (ages 40 to 65 yrs).

Generativity refers to "making your mark" on the world through creating or nurturing things that will outlast an individual.

People experience a need to create or nurture things that will outlast them, often having mentees or creating positive changes that will benefit other people.

We give back to society through raising our children, being productive at work, and becoming involved in community activities and organizations. Through generativity we develop a sense of being a part of the bigger picture.

Success leads to feelings of usefulness and accomplishment, while failure results in shallow involvement in the world.

By failing to find a way to contribute, we become stagnant and feel unproductive. These individuals may feel disconnected or uninvolved with their community and with society as a whole. Success in this stage will lead to the virtue of **care**.

8. Ego Integrity vs. Despair

Ego integrity versus despair is the eighth and final stage of Erik Erikson's stage theory of psychosocial development. This stage begins at approximately age 65 and ends at death.

As we grow older (65+ yrs) and become senior citizens, we tend to slow down our productivity and explore life as a retired person.

It is during this time that we contemplate our accomplishments and can develop integrity if we see ourselves as leading a successful life.

Erikson described ego integrity as "the acceptance of one's one and only life cycle as something that had to be" (1950, p. 268) and later as "a sense of coherence and wholeness" (1982, p. 65).

Erik Erikson believed if we see our lives as unproductive, feel guilt about our past, or feel that we did not accomplish our life goals, we become dissatisfied with life and develop despair, often leading to depression and hopelessness.

Success in this stage will lead to the virtue of **wisdom**. Wisdom enables a person to look back on their life with a sense of closure and completeness, and also accept death without fear.

Wise people are not characterized by a continuous state of ego integrity, but they experience both ego integrity and despair. Thus, late life is characterized by both integrity and despair as alternating states that need to be balanced.

Critical Evaluation

By extending the notion of personality development across the lifespan, Erikson outlines a more

Based on Erikson's ideas, psychology has reconceptualized the way the later periods of life are viewed. Middle and late adulthood are no longer viewed as irrelevant, because of Erikson, they are now considered active and significant times of personal growth.

Erikson's theory has good face validity. Many people find that they can relate to his theories about various stages of the life cycle through their own experiences.

However, Erikson is rather vague about the causes of development. What kinds of experiences must people have to successfully resolve various psychosocial conflicts and move from one stage to another? The theory does not have a universal mechanism for crisis resolution.

Indeed, Erikson (1964) acknowledges his theory is more a descriptive overview of human social and emotional development that does not adequately explain how or why this development occurs. For example, Erikson does not explicitly explain how the outcome of one psychosocial stage influences personality at a later stage.

However, Erikson stressed his work was a 'tool to think with rather than a factual analysis.' Its purpose then is to provide a framework within which development can be considered rather than testable theory.

One of the strengths of Erikson's theory is its ability to tie together important psychosocial development across the entire lifespan.

Although support for Erikson's stages of personality development exists (McAdams, 1999), critics of his theory provide evidence suggesting a lack of discrete stages of personality development (McCrae & Costa, 1997).

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How to reference this article:

McLeod, S. A. (2013). Erik Erikson. Retrieved from www.simplypsychology.org/Erik-Erikson.html

Further Information

Maslow vs Erikson

Maslow	Erikson
Proposed a series of motivational stages, each building on the previous one (i.e., cannot progress without satisfying the previous stage).	Proposed a series of predetermined stages related to personality development. The stages are time related.
Progression through the stages is based on life circumstances and achievement (i.e., it is flexible).	Progression through the stages is based a person's age (i.e., rigid). During each stage an individual attains personality traits, either beneficial or pathological.
There is only one goal of achievement, although not everyone achieves it.	The goal of achievement vary from stage to stage and involve overcoming a psychosocial crisis.
Individuals move up the motivational stages / pyramid in order to reach self-actualisation. The first four stages are like stepping stones.	Successful completion of each stage results in a healthy personality and the acquisition of basic virtues. Basic virtues are characteristic strengths used to resolve subsequent crises.

Psychosocial Stages Summary

Trust vs. Mistrust

This stage begins at birth and lasts through one year of age.

The infant develops a sense of trust when interactions provide reliability, care, and affection.

A lack of this will lead to mistrust.

Autonomy vs. Shame and Doubt

This stage occurs between the ages of 18 months to approximately age two to three years.

The infant develops a sense of personal control over physical skills and a sense of independence.

Erikson states it is critical that parents allow their children to explore the limits of their abilities within an encouraging environment which is tolerant of failure.

Success leads to feelings of autonomy, failure results in feelings of shame and doubt.

Initiative vs. Guilt

This stage occurs during the preschool years, between the ages of three and five.

The child begins to assert control and power over their environment by planning activities, accomplishing tasks and facing challenges. Success at this stage leads to a sense of purpose.

If initiative is dismissed or discouraged, either through criticism or control, children develop a sense of guilt.

Industry vs. Inferiority

This stage occurs during childhood between the ages of five and twelve.

It is at this stage that the child's peer group will gain greater significance and will become a major source of the child's self-esteem. The child is coping with new learning and social demands.

Success leads to a sense of competence, while failure results in feelings of inferiority.

Identity vs. Role Confusion

The fifth stage occurs during adolescence, from about 12-18 years.

Teenagers explore who they are as individuals, and seek to establish a sense of self, and may experiment with different roles, activities, and behaviors.

According to Erikson, this is important to the process of forming a strong identity and developing a sense of direction in life.

Intimacy vs. Isolation

This stage takes place during young adulthood between the ages of approximately 19 and 40. During this period, the major conflict centers on forming intimate, loving relationships with other people. Success leads to strong relationships, while failure results in loneliness and isolation.

Generativity vs. Stagnation

This stage takes place during middle adulthood between the ages of approximately 40 and 65. People experience a need to create or nurture things that will outlast them, often having mentees or creating positive changes that will benefit other people.

Success leads to feelings of usefulness and accomplishment, while failure results in shallow involvement in the world.

Ego Integrity vs. Despair

This stage takes place after age 65 and involves reflecting on one's life and either moving into feeling satisfied and happy with one's life or feeling a deep sense of regret.

Success at this stages leads to feelings of wisdom, while failure results in regret, bitterness, and despair.

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ERIKSON'S THEORY OF PSYCHOSOCIAL DEVELOPMENT

AIM

In this activity you will review your understanding of Erikson's theory of psychosocial development.

INSTRUCTIONS

Draw lines between the matching stages of psychosocial development shown in the two columns below.

ACTIVITY

- | | |
|----------------|-------------------|
| 1 Trust | A Guilt |
| 2 Autonomy | B Despair |
| 3 Integrity | C Shame and doubt |
| 4 Industry | D Role confusion |
| 5 Intimacy | E Stagnation |
| 6 Generativity | F Isolation |
| 7 Identity | G Mistrust |
| 8 Initiative | H Inferiority |

Part B

INSTRUCTIONS

- Complete the flow chart in Figure 5.6 by filling in the major developmental tasks and life crises faced at each stage.
- Define the psychosocial dilemma in the space provided.

ACTIVITY 5.8

ACTIVITY

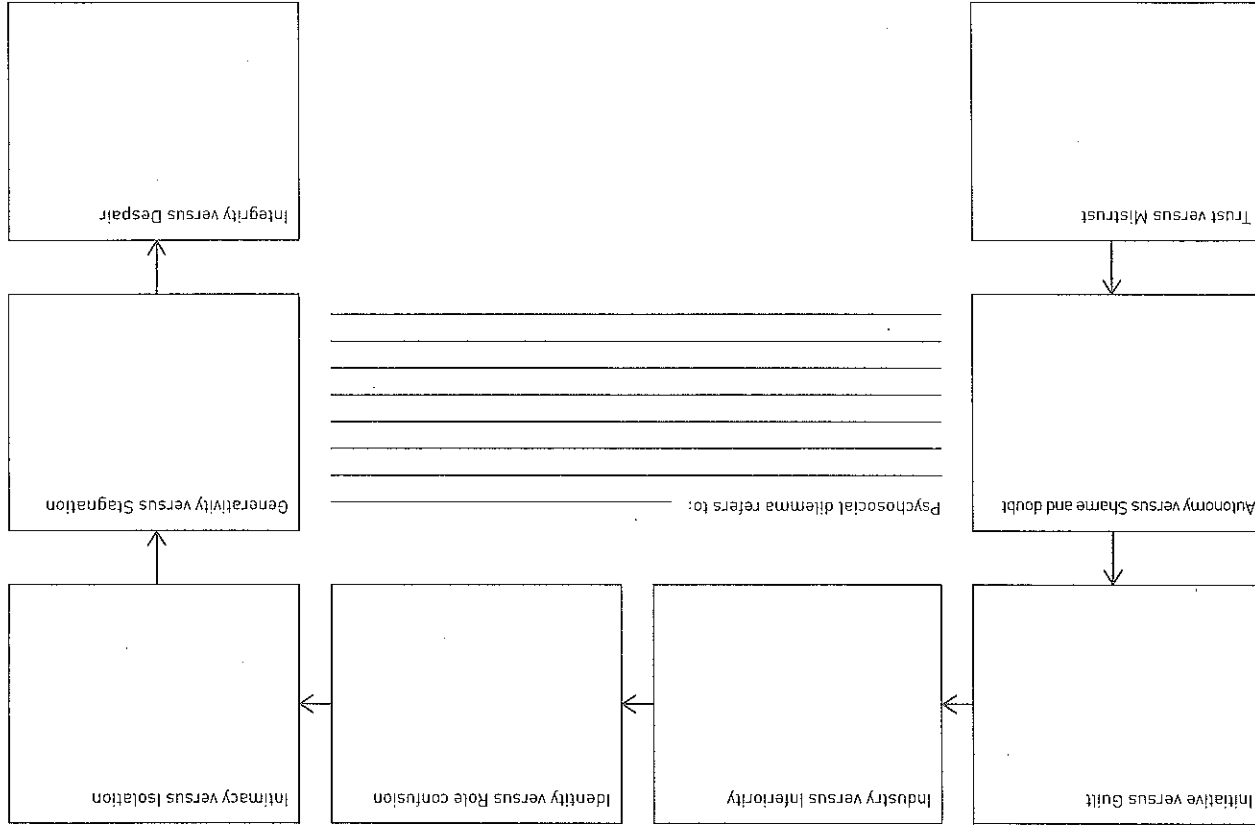


FIGURE 5.6 Major developmental tasks and life crises



Social Learning: Albert Bandura's Bobo Doll Study

Lesson Transcript

Albert Bandura is a famous social psychologist whose Bobo doll study illustrates the social learning theory of psychology. In this lesson, we'll look at the Bobo doll study, its impact on the field of psychology, and what it can tell us about the effects of watching violent television.

Albert Bandura

Following the Columbine High School massacre in 1999, many people began to question the effects of violent television and video games on children. Both of the shooters at Columbine watched violent movies and played violent video games, and many blamed this type of media for what happened. But what exactly is the impact of violent media on the behavior of children and youth?

Nearly forty years before Columbine, Albert Bandura was asking the same question. Bandura is a famous psychologist who set out to find out what effects watching violence on television would have on children. His results shocked many people and spawned a new way to look at how we learn behavior.

Bobo Doll Study

Bandura's study focused on children between the ages of three and six. Each child was shown a video of an adult hitting and yelling at an inflatable clown doll, called a 'Bobo doll.' The children were divided into three groups: One group saw the adult punished after showing aggression towards the Bobo doll, one group saw the adult rewarded after showing aggression, and one group saw the aggression but did not see the adult either punished or rewarded for the aggression.

After watching the video, the child was left alone with a Bobo doll in the room, though Bandura was secretly watching from another room. He counted how many aggressive acts - such as hitting, yelling, cursing, and punching - that each child engaged in. He found that the children who watched the adult get rewarded for showing aggression were more likely to show aggression themselves. He also found that, no matter which version of the video they saw, boys were more likely than girls to imitate the aggressive behavior of the adults in the video.

Social Learning Theory

From this experiment, Bandura concluded that children learn behavior by watching the people around them. This is known as **social learning theory**. This makes sense to anyone who has ever been in the same room as a toddler: They imitate the speech and actions of the adults around them all the time.

Before Bandura's Bobo doll experiment, scientists had studied how rewards and punishment affect learning, but they had not studied how observing others getting rewards and punishment teaches us how to behave. In other words, before Bandura, psychologists knew that getting in trouble for hitting someone would teach a child not to hit, but they hadn't yet shown that kids can learn the same lesson by seeing another kid get in trouble for hitting someone.

Impact on Psychology

Besides the development of social learning theory, the Bobo doll experiment had a profound impact on psychology and the world at large. Many people began to question the violence in movies and television and whether it could cause children to act more aggressively. For decades, politicians have been arguing over whether violent media should be allowed, and Bandura's study is almost always cited in these debates.

In addition, Bandura's study shifted the field of psychology from focusing on purely direct rewards and punishment. Because Bandura showed that people can learn from the experiences of others, many psychologists began to study what types of observations had the most impact. In other words, was observing good behavior getting rewarded more influential than watching bad behavior getting punished? That's one of the many questions that psychologists began to ask, thanks to Bandura's study.

Lesson Summary

Albert Bandura is a psychologist whose famous Bobo doll experiment showed that children who watched a video showing violence being rewarded were more likely to imitate that violence. This experiment led to the foundation of social learning theory, which states that people learn from the actions and experiences of others. Both this theory and the Bobo doll experiment have had a profound impact on the field of psychology and the world at large.

Learning Outcome

When you finish the video, you will be able to:

- Explain what questions Albert Bandura sought to answer
- Describe the Bobo doll study and understand how it illustrates social learning theory
- Explain what the Bobo doll study taught us about the effects of violent television
- Analyze the impact the Bobo doll study had on the field of psychology

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Albert Bandura: Social-Cognitive Theory and Vicarious Learning

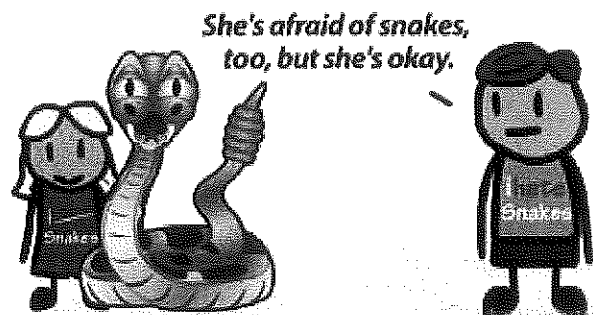
Lesson Transcript

A person's cognition, environment and behavior play important roles in learning new knowledge and skills. This lesson will focus on Albert Bandura's contributions to social learning and vicarious experiences.

Introduction

Do you have a fear of snakes or perhaps other animals? Do you think that you could get over this fear by observing other people that had snake phobias? This is exactly the experiment that was conducted years ago to help the psychologist Albert Bandura understand the importance of behavioral models.

Social Cognitive Theory and Bandura



Bandura formed his social cognitive theory while observing patients with snake phobias

The psychologist Albert Bandura discovered the importance of behavioral models when he was working with patients with snake phobias. He found that the patients' observation of former patients handling snakes was an effective therapy. The patients in treatment abstracted the information that others who were like them handled snakes with no ill effects. These patients considered that information in reflecting on their own behavior. Bandura found that these observations were more effective in treating their phobias than persuasion and observing the psychologist handle the snakes.

Bandura's social learning theory stresses the importance of observational learning, imitation and modeling. His theory integrates a *continuous interaction between behaviors, personal factors - including cognition - and the environment* referred to as **reciprocal causation model**.

However, Bandura does not suggest that the three factors in the triadic model make equal contributions to behavior. The influence of behavior, environment and person depends on which factor is strongest at any particular moment.

In the model, B, or **behavior**, refers to things like *complexity, duration, skill, etc.* The E stands for **environment**, and it's comprised of *the situation, roles, models and relationships*. P, or **person**, is comprised mainly of *cognition but also other personal factors such as self-efficacy, motives and personality*.

Here's a classroom example to help make this point more clear. In the classroom as a teacher presents a lesson to the class, students reflect on what the teacher is saying. This is where the environment influences cognition, a personal factor. Students who don't understand a point raise their hands to ask a question. This is where personal factors influence behavior. So, the teacher reviews the point (behavior influences environment).

Bandura's most famous experiment was the 1961 Bobo Doll study. Briefly, he made a video in which an adult woman was shown being aggressive to a Bobo doll, hitting and shouting aggressive words.

Reciprocal Causation Model

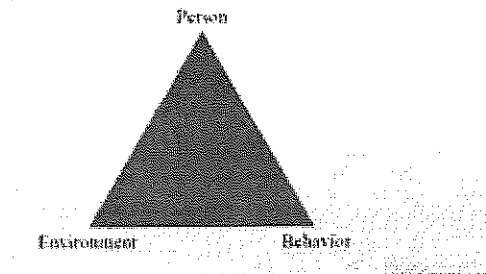


Diagram of the reciprocal causation model

The film was shown to groups of children. Afterwards, the children were allowed to play in the room with the same doll. The children began imitating the model by beating up the doll and using similar, aggressive words. The study was significant because it departed from behaviorism's insinuations that all behavior is directed by reinforcement or rewards. The children received no encouragement or incentives to beat up the doll; they were simply imitating the behavior they had observed.

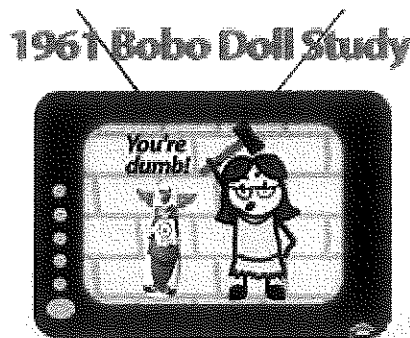
Through the Bobo doll experiment and others, Bandura grounded his understanding of a model's primary function, which is to transmit information to the observer. This function occurs in any of three ways:

1. Modeled behaviors serve as cues to initiate similar behaviors in others.
2. They also serve to strengthen or weaken the learner's existing restraints against the performance of a modeled behavior.
3. They're used to demonstrate new patterns of behavior.

An example of behavior serving as a social prompt is the hostess at an elaborate dinner party. A guest, unfamiliar with the array of silverware, observes the hostess to select the correct utensil appropriate for each course.

Another example for strengthening or weakening behavior is when an observer's restraints against imitating a behavior are strengthened when the model is punished. For example, if a classmate violates a school rule and is punished, this will make the observer think twice before attempting to break the rule. In contrast, observers' restraints are weakened in one of two ways. One is lack of punishment for reprehensible behaviors. The other is the modeling of defensible violence, which adds legitimacy to the use of violence as a solution to a problem. Unfortunately, we see violence daily on TV and in media, which may lead to weaken the observer's behavioral restraints toward violent behavior.

The third influence of modeling is to demonstrate new patterns of behavior. Models are particularly important in the socialization of both children and adults. Language, social values and family customs, as well as educational, social and political practices, are modeled in countless situations. Examples for children of symbolic models that portray both socially appropriate behaviors and sensitivity to others are Sesame Street and Mr. Roger's Neighborhood.



The 1961 Bobo Doll Study is Bandura's most famous experiment

The Role of Consequences in Learning from Models

Although Bandura believed that learning is not facilitated by reinforcement, behaviors enacted by others often do either reinforce or punish. These outcomes of the modeled behavior are referred to as **vicarious** because they *arouse emotional reactions in the observer*. For example, a teacher acknowledges a child who shares her crayons with others at a table, and a child who observed the situation experiences positive feelings.

The two components of vicarious reinforcement are: the behavior of a model produces reinforcement for a particular behavior, and second, positive emotional reactions are aroused in the observer.

Television commercials rely on this type of situation. For example, a well-known actress eats a particular low-calorie food and demonstrates her weight loss or a handsome actor dressed in a tuxedo demonstrates the features of a luxury car, and then joins other expensively dressed people entering a large house for a party.

In these situations, the vicarious reinforcement for a particular group of viewers is the positive feelings associated with being slim or acquiring social status. Similarly, players at slot machines, for example, see and hear the other players winning. The loud noises and flashing lights

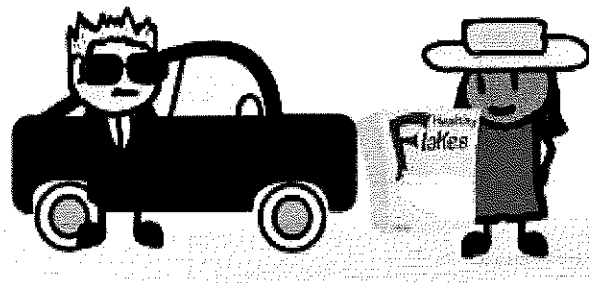
announce the winner to others. Also, advertisements of contests often include pictures of previous winners. These pictures may elicit positive emotional reactions in readers.

Like vicarious reinforcement, punishment administered to a model tends to convey three primary effects:

1. The outcome conveys information about behaviors that are likely to be punished and are, therefore, inappropriate.
2. A restraining influence on imitative, aggressive actions is also likely to occur.
3. Because the behavior was unsuccessful, the model's status is likely to be devalued.

The absence of punishment conveys several things as well. Specifically, it conveys the message of implicit acceptance of the behavior. An example is a classroom in which the teacher is careless about monitoring exams and cheating occurs. If the cheating goes unpunished, others are more inclined to cheat on the next test. Similarly, when aggressive actions go unpunished or when people respond approvingly or indifferently to violence, this is viewed as both acceptable and expected in similar circumstances.

In learning from models, direct reinforcement is the positive reinforcement by the observer's imitation of the model. Self-reinforcement, in contrast, occurs in situations in which individuals have established standards for their behavior, and they evaluate their behavior in relation to those standards.



Television commercials provide an example of vicarious reinforcement

Self-Efficacy and Behavior/Cognition

Despite how many times a person observes a behavior, they will only engage in the behavior if they believe they can be successful. This is termed as a person's **self-efficacy** or *their belief in their ability to produce desired results by their own actions*. As you recall, self-efficacy was a contributor in the triadic reciprocity model discussed earlier.

There are four ways of developing a strong sense of efficacy. We have discussed the effects of modeling, and one way to increase self-efficacy is by **social modeling**; people see others like themselves being successful. **Mastery** is another example; people achieve goals and overcome failures. This is an important part of increasing self-efficacy. **Social persuasion** is our third example. When people are persuaded by others that they can succeed, this positively impacts their self-efficacy. Finally, a person's physical and emotional state can help them accurately read their own abilities to be successful in an activity or assignment.

Lesson Summary

In summary, Bandura's social-cognitive theory is based on the triadic reciprocity model in which behavior, personal traits and the environment interact. Vicarious reinforcement and punishment also play a role in determining whether an individual will choose to engage in a behavior or not.

Let's return to our original example now. After understanding how the social-cognitive theory works, do you think you could learn to not fear snakes by simply observing other former, snake-phobic people handling snakes?

Lesson Objectives

After watching this lesson, you should be able to:

- Identify **Albert Bandura** and describe his snake phobia and Bobo Doll studies
- Describe Bandura's **reciprocal causation model** and the three ways modeling can function
- Define **self-efficacy** and understand the four ways to develop it
- Explain the role of direct and **vicarious** reinforcement in modeling

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Bandura - Social Learning Theory

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by Saul McLeod updated 2016

In social learning theory, Albert Bandura (1977) agrees with the behaviorist learning theories of classical conditioning and operant conditioning. However, he adds two important ideas:

1. Mediating processes occur between stimuli & responses.
2. Behavior is learned from the environment through the process of observational learning.

Observational Learning

Children observe the people around them behaving in various ways. This is illustrated during the famous Bobo doll experiment (Bandura, 1961).

Individuals that are observed are called models. In society, children are surrounded by many influential models, such as parents within the family, characters on children's TV, friends within their peer group and teachers at school. These models provide examples of behavior to observe and imitate, e.g., masculine and feminine, pro and anti-social, etc.

Children pay attention to some of these people (models) and encode their behavior. At a later time they may imitate (i.e., copy) the behavior they have observed. They may do this regardless of whether the behavior is 'gender appropriate' or not, but there are a number of processes that make it more likely that a child will reproduce the behavior that its society deems appropriate for its gender.

First, the child is more likely to attend to and imitate those people it perceives as similar to itself. Consequently, it is more likely to imitate behavior modeled by people of the same gender.

Second, the people around the child will respond to the behavior it imitates with either reinforcement or punishment. If a child imitates a model's behavior and the consequences are rewarding, the child is likely to continue performing the behavior. If a parent sees a little girl consoling her teddy bear and says "what a kind girl you are," this is rewarding for the child and makes it more likely that she will repeat the behavior. Her behavior has been reinforced (i.e., strengthened).

Reinforcement can be external or internal and can be positive or negative. If a child wants approval from parents or peers, this approval is an external reinforcement, but feeling happy about being approved of is an internal reinforcement. A child will behave in a way which it believes will earn approval because it desires approval.

Positive (or negative) reinforcement will have little impact if the reinforcement offered externally does not match with an individual's needs. Reinforcement can be positive or negative, but the important factor is that it will usually lead to a change in a person's behavior.

Third, the child will also take into account of what happens to other people when deciding whether or not to copy someone's actions. A person learns by observing the consequences of another person's (i.e., models) behavior, e.g., a younger sister observing an older sister being rewarded for a particular behavior is more likely to repeat that behavior herself. This is known as vicarious reinforcement.

This relates to an attachment to specific models that possess qualities seen as rewarding. Children will have a number of models with whom they identify. These may be people in their immediate world, such as parents or older siblings, or could be fantasy characters or people in the media. The motivation to identify with a particular model is that they have a quality which the individual would like to possess.

Identification occurs with another person (the model) and involves taking on (or adopting) observed behaviors, values, beliefs and attitudes of the person with whom you are identifying.

The term identification as used by Social Learning Theory is similar to the Freudian term related to the Oedipus complex. For example, they both involve internalizing or adopting another person's behavior. However, during the Oedipus complex, the child can only identify with the same sex parent, whereas with Social Learning Theory the person (child or adult) can potentially identify with any other person.

Identification is different to imitation as it may involve a number of behaviors being adopted, whereas imitation usually involves copying a single behavior.

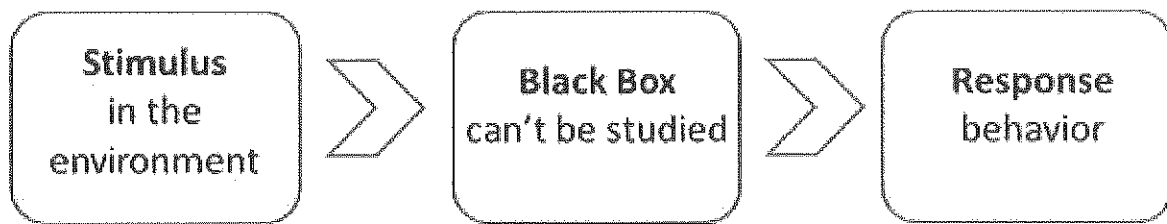
Mediational Processes

SLT is often described as the 'bridge' between traditional learning theory (i.e., behaviorism) and the cognitive approach. This is because it focuses on how mental (cognitive) factors are involved in learning.

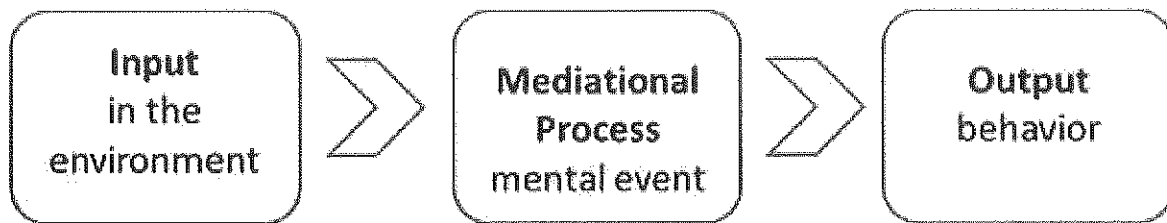
Unlike Skinner, Bandura (1977) believes that humans are active information processors and think about the relationship between their behavior and its consequences. Observational learning could not occur unless cognitive processes were at work. These mental factors mediate (i.e., intervene) in the learning process to determine whether a new response is acquired.

Therefore, individuals do not automatically observe the behavior of a model and imitate it. There is some thought prior to imitation, and this consideration is called mediational processes. This occurs between observing the behavior (stimulus) and imitating it or not (response)

Behaviourist Model (only study observable / external behaviour)



Cognitive Model (can scientifically study internal behavior)



There are four mediational processes proposed by Bandura:

1. **Attention:** The extent to which we are exposed/notice the behavior. For a behavior to be imitated, it has to grab our attention. We observe many behaviors on a daily basis, and many of these are not noteworthy. Attention is therefore extremely important in whether a behavior influences others imitating it.
2. **Retention:** How well the behavior is remembered. The behavior may be noticed but is it not always remembered which obviously prevents imitation. It is important therefore that a memory of the behavior is formed to be performed later by the observer.

Much of social learning is not immediate, so this process is especially vital in those cases. Even if the behavior is reproduced shortly after seeing it, there needs to be a memory to refer to.

3. **Reproduction:** This is the ability to perform the behavior that the model has just demonstrated. We see much behavior on a daily basis that we would like to be able to imitate but that this not always possible. We are limited by our physical ability and for that reason, even if we wish to reproduce the behavior, we cannot.

This influences our decisions whether to try and imitate it or not. Imagine the scenario of a 90-year-old-lady who struggles to walk watching Dancing on Ice. She may appreciate that the skill is a desirable one, but she will not attempt to imitate it because she physically cannot do it.

4. **Motivation:** The will to perform the behavior. The rewards and punishment that follow a behavior will be considered by the observer. If the perceived rewards outweigh the perceived costs (if there are any), then the behavior will be more likely to be imitated by the observer. If the vicarious reinforcement is not seen to be important enough to the observer, then they will not imitate the behavior.

The social learning approach takes thought processes into account and acknowledges the role that they play in deciding if a behavior is to be imitated or not. As such, SLT provides a more comprehensive explanation of human learning by recognizing the role of mediational processes.

However, although it can explain some quite complex behavior, it cannot adequately account for how we develop a whole range of behavior including thoughts and feelings. We have a lot of cognitive control over our behavior and just because we have had experiences of violence does not mean we have to reproduce such behavior.

It is for this reason that Bandura modified his theory and in 1986 renamed his Social Learning Theory, Social Cognitive Theory (SCT), as a better description of how we learn from our social experiences.

Some criticisms of social learning theory arise from their commitment to the environment as the chief influence on behavior. It is limiting to describe behavior solely in terms of either nature or nurture and attempts to do this underestimate the complexity of human behavior. It is more likely that behavior is due to an interaction between nature (biology) and nurture (environment).

Social learning theory is not a full explanation for all behavior. This is particularly the case when there is no apparent role model in the person's life to imitate for a given behavior.

The discovery of mirror neurons has lent biological support to the theory of social learning. Although research is in its infancy the recent discovery of "mirror neurons" in primates may constitute a neurological basis for imitation. These are neurons which fire both if the animal does something itself, and if it observes the action being done by another.

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Further Information



Related Articles

- QUESTIONS**
1. According to the article, what was the aim of Skinner's training with pigeons?
 2. Explain the process using the three-phase model of operant conditioning Skinner may have used to train the pigeons.
 3. Discuss two possible ethical issues with this research.

4.3 TRY IT YOURSELF >>>

Complete the table comparing classical conditioning to operant conditioning.

Explanation of learning:	Explanation of learning:
Role of learner:	Role of learner:
Three phases of learning:	Three-phase model of learning:
Extinction	Extinction
Spontaneous recovery	Spontaneous recovery
Stimulus discrimination	Stimulus discrimination
Stimulus generalisation	Stimulus generalisation

OBSERVATIONAL LEARNING: A METHOD OF SOCIAL LEARNING

Early theories to explain how behaviour is learnt focused on an individual's inner forces in the form of needs, drives and impulses, often operating below the level of awareness. These theories were driven by personality theorists, and because they theorised that behaviour was caused by forces within the individual, explanations into how behaviour is learnt followed this line of thinking. These theories were criticised for many reasons, including the lack of empirical evidence to support them.

TABLE 4.2 Attention, retention, reproduction, motivation and reinforcement in observational learning

Observer factors in observational learning	Observers cannot learn unless they pay attention to what's happening around them.	Observers must be able to remember what was happening around them at the time of observation by making a mental representation of the observed behaviour	Observers must be capable physically and psychologically of reproducing the act.	Observers will only learn what they have observed if they have some motivation or reason to do so. The presence of reinforcement can be an important aspect to motivation.
Other factors	If the observer likes or can identify with the model, then learning is more effective.	Information is more readily retained if the observer can encode and structure the information in an easily-remembered form.	Some tasks require the use of skills the observer will not have; e.g. carefully watching a clown juggle will not repeat the task. Also, necessarily mean you can learn to juggle. It is a skill that requires coordination and practice.	If the person observing the model is appropriately reinforced, they are more likely to repeat the task. Also, watched is reinforced, the observer is more likely to perform the task.

responses, to carry out or avoid previously learnt responses, or a general rule that can be applied to various situations.

ELEMENTS OF OBSERVATIONAL LEARNING

For observational learning to occur, several factors must be involved. These include attention, retention, reproduction, motivation and reinforcement.

>> **Attention:** The learner must pay attention to the model; the learner must perceive the model to be interesting in one way or another. If the learner does not pay attention or recognise the important features of the model's behaviour, then they will not learn through observation. Simply exposing an individual to a model will not mean that they will attend closely to them. It has been found that models with interesting qualities are more likely to succeed in grabbing the learner's attention and models who lack pleasing characteristics tend to be ignored.

>> **Retention:** The learner must remember (retain) what was done by the model so that the information can be encoded and stored in their memory system for later use. The learner does this by making a mental representation of the model's behaviour using two representational systems, one using images and the other using verbal representations.

>> **Reproduction:** The learner must be able to reproduce (form a reproduction, or copy of) the modelled behaviour, so they must have the psychological

and physical capacity to be able to demonstrate the modelled behaviour. For example, most people watching a world-record level shot-putter will not be able to replicate the behaviour just by paying attention and storing a mental representation of the throwing actions. Unless they have the physical strength, they won't be able to demonstrate the learning. However, they may be able to demonstrate that they have learnt through observation by achieving a rough approximation of the behaviour and improve by practising and making adjustments on the basis of the feedback they gain in their performance.

>> **Motivation:** The learner must have the desire, or motivation, to repeat the observed behaviour.

>> **Reinforcement:** The learner must perceive some form of reward for repeating the observed behaviour.

Normal reinforcement determines if it will be repeated thereafter.

Table 4.2 summarises these factors. In general, models who are attractive, trustworthy, capable, admired, powerful or high in status also tend to be imitated (Bandura & Walters, 1963; Brewer & Wann, 1998).

observational learning When learning occurs by watching (observing) others and noting the consequences of their actions, then imitating or not imitating their behaviour

model Someone who serves as an example in observational learning

4.0 CHECK YOUR UNDERSTANDING >>

1 Helen recently saw her young daughter, Charlotte, hit her doll violently with a spoon. Helen wants to reduce Charlotte's aggressive behaviour towards her doll. In terms of observational learning, Helen should:

- A remove the doll and spoon from Charlotte.
- B smack Charlotte every time Charlotte hits her doll.
- C speak kindly and behave in a caring way towards Charlotte's doll.
- D provide negative reinforcement for Charlotte whenever Charlotte hits her doll.

2 Robyn carefully watches a chef on television baking a cake so that she can improve her cooking skills. The chef is a well-known expert in the culinary world and Robyn is trying to copy his technique. Robyn wants to improve her sponge cakes to impress her family. Robyn wanting to improve her baking skills to impress her family relates to which factor that might influence Robyn's learning?

- A Attention
- B Retention
- C Reproduction
- D Motivation

3 Robyn is not able to whisk the cake mix as fast as the chef on the television because her arms are not strong enough. Which factor may be involved in Robyn's inability to learn through observation in this instance?

- A Attention
- B Retention
- C Reproduction
- D Motivation

4 Identify one difference and one similarity between learning using observation and operant conditioning.

5 Peter has always wanted to learn how to surf so that he can go surfing with his brother. He buys himself a surfboard and goes to the nearest surf beach to watch the surfers and learn how to surf. Using the five stages of observational learning, explain the learning process that Peter would go through.

CHILDREN LEARN BY IMITATING MODELS: BANDURA'S BOBO DOLL EXPERIMENTS

In a series of classic experiments in the 1960s, Albert Bandura set out to test social learning theory – that new patterns of behaviour can be acquired through direct experience or by observing the behaviour of others. Specifically, he wanted to test whether children would learn to behave aggressively if they observed models (in most cases adults) act aggressively. He used preschool-aged children who watched an adult attack a large blow-up doll: the Bobo doll. The first study used adult models (live, in person), that either did or

did not play aggressively with a Bobo doll (Bandura, Ross & Ross, 1961). A follow-up study investigated whether filmed models were as influential as live models (Bandura, Ross & Ross, 1963a). The researchers found that aggression in the children increased in both cases when the model behaved aggressively towards the Bobo doll; that is, whether they observed the live adult model in the room or whether they observed the filmed version (see Figure 4.12). Bandura and his colleagues conducted many more studies into the effect of modelling on aggressive behaviour in children. We will now look at some specific experiments undertaken by Bandura.

In one study, Bandura and colleagues used adult models who interacted with each other, rather than with Bobo dolls. Bandura's subjects were preschool-aged children who were invited, one at a time, to play in a room filled with toys. On the way to the toy-room, the researcher took each child on a detour via the researcher's office, on the pretext that the researcher had to collect something. While each child waited outside the office, they were exposed to one of four conditions. In the first condition, children were instructed to watch a video on a television that showed two adult models playing, and then one model physically attacked the other. The attacker was then rewarded with toys and treats to eat. In the second condition, children were shown a video that depicted the same aggressive attack, but this time the attacker was punished. In the third condition, children were shown a video where two models played together without any aggression. In the fourth condition, children were not shown a video at all as they waited outside the office.

Each child was then taken to the toy room and left alone to play with various toys. Among the toys there were two Bobo dolls. The children were observed through a one-way mirror, and the number of aggressive acts towards the Bobo dolls was recorded.

The results showed that the children who observed the film where the aggressive attacker was rewarded displayed significantly more aggressive acts when playing alone than children from any of the other conditions. A summary of the results is shown in Figure 4.13. Logic would tell us that the children attacked the Bobo doll instead of being aggressive with the other toys because the Bobo doll was the most similar of the toys to human form, and hence the best imitation of the behaviour they had witnessed.

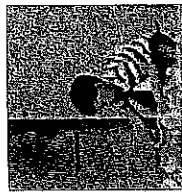
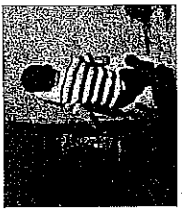


FIGURE 4.12 A preschool-aged child imitates the aggressive behaviour of an adult model he has just seen in a film, in one of Bandura's experiments.



Another study by Bandura and colleagues used preschool-aged children again – this time the children were divided into three groups. The first group saw a live adult sit on a Bobo doll, punch it, hit it with a hammer and kick it around the room. The second group saw a movie of these actions. A third group saw a cartoon version of the aggressive acts.

In each of the conditions, the aggressive model was either rewarded with lollies and praise from another adult, punished verbally and physically with a smack, or neither rewarded nor punished. Later, after all of the children had watched the model, the children were frustrated by having some attractive toys taken away from them. Then they were allowed to play with the Bobo doll in a room where experimenters could watch each child's behaviour through a two-way mirror. Some children were offered incentives such as sweets and praise for imitating the model's behaviour, and some were not. During their play with the Bobo doll, most children imitated the adult's attack. Some even added new aggressive acts of their own! Interestingly, the



cartoon was only slightly less effective in encouraging aggression than the live adult model and the filmed model (Bandura, Ross & Ross, 1963b).

The results of the experiment indicate that the consequences for the model that the children viewed had an effect on the behaviour displayed by those children when placed in the room with the Bobo doll. Children who saw the model being rewarded or suffering no consequences for their behaviour were more likely to display aggressive behaviour themselves. Children likely to display aggressive behaviour. Most children tended to behave aggressively if given a reinforcement to do so, even if they had seen the model receiving punishment. In general, boys were more aggressive than girls, although girls behaved nearly as aggressively as the boys if offered a reward (see Figure 4.14). These results indicate that the children had learnt the model's behaviour, even if they didn't imitate the model until they were offered a reward to do so. Bandura suggested that although an individual may display no evidence of having learnt a behaviour from observing a model, a cognitive (mental) form of the model's response has still been made, and may not be used (elicited) unless an incentive (reward) to do so is present.

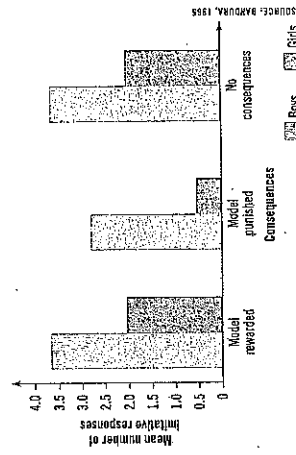


FIGURE 4.14 The effect of observed consequences on imitative behaviour from Bandura's 1965 experiment on observational learning and aggression.

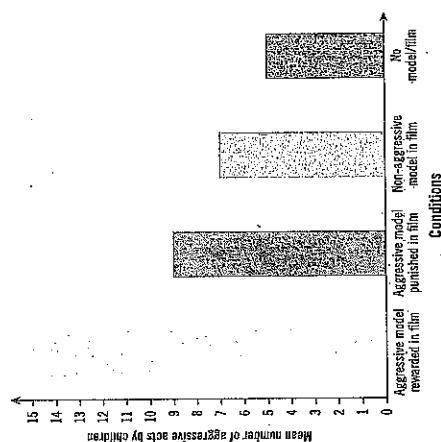


FIGURE 4.13 Results from one of Bandura's modelling experiments

The aggressive behaviour exhibited by the children in Bandura's experiments demonstrate the components of observational learning in the following way:

- » **Attention:** The children had to pay attention to the adult modelling the aggressive behaviour.
- » **Retention:** The children would store a mental representation of the modelled behaviour in the form of images (of the physical acts) and verbal (the language the models used) representations in their memory, in order to use the information at a later time when they were placed in a room with the Bobo doll.
- » **Reproduction:** The children would need to have the physical and psychological capacity to perform the observed aggressive behaviour.
- » **Motivation:** The children needed to want to learn the aggressive behaviour, and some were motivated in some conditions by vicarious reinforcement (seeing the consequences for the model).
- » **Reinforcement:** Some of the children were motivated to learn the behaviour by other factors such as tangible reinforcement (praise and food). Interestingly, in most of Bandura's experiments there were gender differences in that girls exhibited fewer aggressive acts compared to the boys, except in the experiment where they were offering an incentive to perform the learnt behaviour. This demonstrates that observational learning can occur without the learner replicating the behaviour immediately. It is not until they are motivated (and this may be by a reinforcer) that evidence of the learning is apparent.

EARLY EXPOSURE TO TV VIOLENCE PREDICTS AGGRESSION IN ADULTHOOD

What is this study about?

There is increasing evidence that early exposure to media violence is a contributing factor to the development of aggression. However, much of the past research on media violence has focused on short-term effects and reported significant relations only for boys. This study draws on social-cognitive observational-learning theory, desensitization theory, and social comparison theory to examine the longitudinal relationship between early exposure to TV violence and adult aggressive behaviour for both males and females.

This study is a follow-up of the 3-year longitudinal study conducted by Huesmann and his colleagues in 1977. In the original study, which included 557 children from five countries (aged 6–10 years), researchers gathered information on childhood TV-violence viewing, identification with aggressive TV characters, judgments of realism of TV violence, aggressive behaviour and intellectual ability, as well as parents' socioeconomic status (measured by educational level), aggressiveness, parenting practices and attitudes and parent's TV usage (i.e., TV-viewing frequency and TV-violence viewing).

In this follow-up study, researchers interviewed and gathered collateral data (i.e., archival records and interviews of spouses and friends) on 329 participants from the original sample. At the time of the follow-up, the participants ranged in age from 20 to 25 years. Researchers administered measures of adult TV-violence viewing and adult aggressive behaviour, and obtained archival data on criminal conviction and moving violation records from state records.

What did the study find?

The results of this study revealed that early childhood exposure to TV violence predicted aggressive behaviour for both males and females in adulthood. Additionally, identification with same sex aggressive TV characters, as well as participants' ratings of perceived realism of TV violence, also predicted adult aggression in both males and females. Furthermore, while a positive relationship was found between early aggression and subsequent TV violence viewing, the effect was not significant. These findings suggest that, while aggressive children may choose to watch more violent TV programming, it is more plausible that early childhood exposure to TV violence stimulates increases in aggression later in adulthood.

Gender differences were also observed in the expression of aggression. Specifically, men were more likely to engage in serious physical aggression and criminality, whereas women were more likely to engage in forms of indirect aggression. Men and women reported similar frequencies of engaging in verbal aggression, general aggression, and aggression toward spouses. For men, the effects were exacerbated by their identification with same sex characters and perceptions of realism in TV violence.

The longitudinal relationships observed in this study held true, even after controlling for the effects of early aggressive behaviour in childhood, socioeconomic status, intellectual ability, and various parenting factors. These findings support the hypothesis that the causal effects of media violence exposure found in laboratory settings can be generalized to real life from childhood to adulthood.

How does this relate to the ACT against violence program?

Children are increasingly becoming heavy media consumers. Research indicates that much of the media directed at children contains violent content. While media violence exposure may have short-term effects on adults, its negative impact on children is enduring. As this study suggests, early exposure to TV violence places both male and female children at risk for the development of

aggressive and violent behaviour in adulthood. The ACT program addresses the impact of media violence on the development of young children, and teaches parents strategies for reducing their children's exposure to media violence.

Sources: American Psychological Association (2003)

QUESTIONS

- 1 What was the aim of the most current study?
- 2 What methods did the researchers use to obtain their data?
- 3 What were the conclusions drawn by the research?
- 4 Do you think that this study could be generalised? Why or why not?
- 5 Discuss two possible extraneous variables in these studies.

40 YOUR UNDERSTANDING

- 1 With reference to Bandura's research in which children watched an adult model interact aggressively with a Bobo doll, which statement is most correct?
 - A Children never imitated the adult model's behaviour.
 - B Boys and girls were equally aggressive to the Bobo doll in all conditions.
 - C Children who watched the adult model being punished were less likely to imitate aggressive behaviour.
 - D Girls always imitated the adult model's behaviour, whereas boys did not imitate the adult model's behaviour.
- 2 Bandura's Bobo doll experiments showed that:
 - A girls are more aggressive than boys.
 - B if the children observe the model's behaviour and do not imitate the behaviour they observed, it means that the behaviour was not learnt.
 - C if the children observe the model's behaviour being punished, they will be more likely to imitate the behaviour they observed.
 - D if the children observe the model's behaviour being reinforced, they will be more likely to imitate the behaviour they observed.
- 3 Bandura's famous Bobo doll study on observational learning indicates that aggressive behaviour is affected in all of the following examples except one, which is:
 - A Aggressive behaviour increases when the model is rewarded.
 - B Aggressive behaviour decreases when the model is punished.
 - C Aggressive behaviour increases when the observer is rewarded.
 - D Aggressive behaviour increases when the observer is punished.

→ 4 Using the process of observational learning, explain how the children in Bandura's studies learnt aggressive behaviour from a model.

- 5 Bandura's studies contained some extraneous variables. Identify these variables, explain how they may have influenced the results and discuss how Bandura could have controlled them.
- 6 Claire wants to learn how to drive so that she can get her licence and be more independent. To learn how to drive, every time Claire gets into the car with her mother, she watches what she does. Outline the observational learning process Claire would use to learn how to drive.

ETHICAL ISSUES IN LEARNING EXPERIMENTS

John B. Watson (1878–1958) was a psychology professor at the Johns Hopkins University from 1908 until 1920. Watson and his assistant, Rosalie Rayner, are probably best known for their rather unethical experiment into classical conditioning using a baby named Little Albert B. In their demonstration of classical conditioning, Watson and Rayner (1920) set out to condition 9-month-old Little Albert to have an emotional response of fear to laboratory rats and other white objects.

THE LITTLE ALBERT EXPERIMENT

At the time of the experiment, Watson was investigating how specific fears might be conditioned. He hypothesised that a child would react with fear when they heard a loud noise, and that this fear was an innate (inborn) or unconditioned response. Therefore, according to classical conditioning theory, he could pair a loud noise with other stimuli in order to condition a child to have an emotional response (fear) to stimuli that normally would not be feared by a child.

Watson and Rayner chose as their participant the child of a worker at the clinic in which the experiment would take place. It is believed that Little Albert's mother was unaware that her son would be used in an experiment on conditioning fear responses, but that she was paid \$1 for his participation (American Psychological Association, 2015). As there was no rule of informed consent in 1920, this is one of the reasons why this experiment is now considered unethical and would not be conducted today. Little Albert was considered suitable for the experiment, as he was a placid child who rarely cried or seemed sad;



Social-Cognitive Learning Theory: Definition and Examples

Lesson Transcript

Have you learned behaviors or skills from observing others? Maybe you have learned from observing a teacher, friend, or supervisor. We acquire new knowledge and skills from a variety of methods. This lesson will introduce the concepts of the social-cognitive theory, which focuses on the learning that occurs within a social context.

Introduction

Do you know how to do the Electric Slide dance? Come on...admit it. Even if you aren't proud of knowing it, you probably learned the dance at some point in time. Do you remember how you learned it? I doubt you read each step in a book and then tried it alone. You probably observed others dancing and then joined in when you thought you had a good understanding of the moves. There are many ways to gain new knowledge and learn behaviors and skills, and observation is one method.

Social Cognitive Theory

The **social-cognitive theory** is a theoretical perspective in which learning by observing others is the focus of study. Social-cognitive theory is grounded by several basic assumptions.

One is that people can learn by observing others. Learners can acquire new behaviors and knowledge by simply observing a **model**. A model is a person who demonstrates behavior for someone else. In our Electric Slide example, the observer watched the models perform the dance in order to learn it.

Assumption two: learning is an internal process that may or may not lead to a behavior. Learning may not occur immediately. The observer could process the new behavior, but his/her learning may not be affected until a later point or never at all. In our dance example, it may take our observer multiple parties at which the Electric Slide is being danced until he joins in, or he may never join in.

There's also an assumption of goal-directed behavior. Social-cognitive theorists propose that people set goals for themselves and direct their behavior accordingly. They are motivated to accomplish those goals. In our dance example, the observer is motivated to learn the dance or else he wouldn't be observing it time and time again. In the classroom, learners are motivated by goals, such as a high GPA, popularity with classmates or even being the class clown. These goals direct behavior.

Another assumption of the social-cognitive theory is behavior eventually becomes self-regulated. Social-cognitivists, unlike behaviorists, believe that people eventually begin to regulate their own learning and behavior. Let's take our dancer for example. Behaviorists would say the best way for him to learn the dance would be through continual reinforcement from other people encouraging him to continue to improve. Social-cognitivists theorists, however, would say that he should observe the models, perfect his own moves, and compare them to the models moves. And then, give himself a pat on the back when he has mastered the entire dance.

Our final assumption deals with reinforcement and punishment. Social-cognitivists believe reinforcement and punishment have indirect (rather than direct) effects on learning and behavior. People form expectations about the likely consequences of future responses based on how current responses are reinforced or punished. People's expectations are also influenced by the observation of the consequences that follow other people's behavior. This is referred to as vicarious experiences. The non-occurrence of an expected consequence may also have a reinforcing or a punishing effect.

For example, our wannabe dancer may think that if he learns the dance, the audience will clap for him because he has observed this reinforcement while watching the others dance. However, if he does not see clapping or, perhaps, he sees everyone laughing at the other dancers, he may choose to not participate in the dance at all. We will discuss how the environment and cognitive factors enter into the social-cognitive learning in another lesson.

Modeling

We have discussed the assumptions of social-cognitive theory and that models play a critical role in the learning process. Now we will review the different types of models.

Most of the models we learn from and observe are **live models**. These are *individuals whose behavior is observable in real life*. For example, teachers, peers, and supervisors - these are real people. Our second type of model is the **symbolic model**. These are *real or fictional characters that influence an observer's behavior*. These types of models could be real or fictional characters portrayed in books, movies, and other media. Researchers do not indicate which type of model is best, as long as the model possesses certain characteristics to make them effective. Let's talk about those characteristics of an effective model now.

The model must be competent. People will typically try to imitate behaviors of models who do something well, not poorly. In the classroom, a teacher could either demonstrate correct behavior or choose student models that are at or above the observer's skill level to display these skills correctly.

A model must have prestige and power. These are often qualities observers look for. For example, students may look to renowned athletes or world figures for behavioral cues. In the classroom, a teacher might highlight popular actors or sports figures as models for certain behaviors.

Models are also more effective if they are engaging in gender-appropriate behaviors. Students, especially in lower grades, are more likely to adopt behaviors from models that are engaging in gender-appropriate behaviors.

Finally, the behaviors being modeled should be relevant to the learner's situation. Students are more likely to learn or adopt new behaviors that they believe will help them in their own circumstances. For example, our dancer may model the Electric Slide because he thinks it will help him earn friends or be popular at the dance.

Functions of Modeling

Modeling serves different functions. We have discussed in detail how observational learning is a function of modeling. This is when new skills and behaviors are acquired.

In order for learning to occur, the observer must pay attention to the model, retain what was observed, translate the visual and symbolic conceptions of the modeled events into behavior, and perform the activities with expected positive consequences. Observing a model can also strengthen or weaken inhibitions. When models perform threatening or prohibited activities without negative consequences, observers may perform the same behaviors themselves because they think it's okay. However, models that are punished for these types of behaviors may inhibit the observer's likelihood of engaging in these behaviors as well. Finally, response facilitation occurs when modeled actions serve as social prompts for the observer to behave accordingly.

Lesson Summary

So, let's summarize what we've discussed. The **social-cognitive theory** focuses on the learning that occurs within a social context. Within this social context, learners observe new behaviors and skills from a model. They may internalize and demonstrate those skills or sometimes not. Social-cognitivists also believe people and their behaviors become self-regulated. Finally, observers form expectations about reinforcement and punishment based on what they observe happening to a model. It is also important to remember that models must be competent, are more effective if they are assumed to have power and prestige, and are engaging in relevant and gender-appropriate behaviors.

Lesson Objectives

After watching this lesson, you should be able to:

- Describe the **social-cognitive theory** and its assumptions
- Define **model** and explain the importance of modeling in the social-cognitive theory
- Identify the different types of models, what makes an effective model and what functions models may serve

Have Feedback for Study.com?

Moving on from Piaget

4.1.7 Outcomes 1, 3 and 4

Researchers have criticised Piaget. Describe three areas of criticism.

4.1.8 Outcomes 1 and 3

1 What did Donaldson (1978) show in his research using the 'policeman task'?

2 What did Michael Siegal (1991) show in his experiments?

3 In what respect is Lev Vygotsky contrasted with Piaget?

4 Are the following statements true (T) or false (F)?

- a Piaget was wrong about the ages at which developmental milestones were reached but he was correct in their sequence.
- b The sequence of physical development is the same for everyone, although the average ages at which these take place may vary.
- c There are perceptual processes involved in skill development.
- d Active participation and observation can assist in skill development.
- e Decision-making isn't a large component of skill development.
- f Mental preparation plays no part in skill development.
- g Organised play for children helps develop perceptual and motor skills.

Kohlberg's theory of moral development

4.1.9 Outcome 1

Refer to Chapter 16, page 229 of your Student Book to complete Table 4.1 below.

Table 4.1 Kohlberg's six stages of moral development and their characteristics

Stage	Moral focus	Content/characteristics
PRECONVENTIONAL		
Stage 1		Does not recognise different points of view Confuses perspective of authority with one's own
Stage 2		Aware of different interests and that these may conflict Instrumental exchange of services, goodwill and fairness

➤
continued

Stage	Moral focus	Content/characteristics
CONVENTIONAL		
Stage 3		Following rules, living up to expectations of others, and maintaining trust, gratitude, respect and loyalty
Stage 4		Doing one's duty, taking the view of the system, obeying laws and upholding the social order
POSTCONVENTIONAL		
Stage 5		Asserting and integrating basic rights, values and legal contracts Laws as social contracts
Stage 6		Commitment to the universal principles of justice Respect for others

4.1.10 Outcome 1

Bernie, a 4 year old, shares her toys with Simon so that Simon will share his toys with her. According to Kohlberg's theory she is operating at a _____ level.

4.1.11 Outcomes 1, 2, 3 and 4

What is required with respect to the type of study, to confirm that each stage of Kohlberg's moral development builds on and is dependent on the previous stage?

The influence of gender on moral development

4.1.12 Outcomes 1, 3 and 4

1 What was Gilligan's main criticism of Kohlberg's theory?

2 What is the main reason for women's stronger sense of interconnectness?

3 In what ways do Gilligan's stages of moral development differ from those of Kohlberg?

4 What research is there that challenges Gilligan's ideas?

4.1.13 Outcomes 1, 3 and 4

In April 2005, nine Australians – now known as the Bali Nine – were arrested in Bali and charged with smuggling heroin into Australia from Indonesia. All nine were convicted and the group's leaders, Andrew Chan and Myuran Sukumaran, were sentenced to death. They were executed in Bali in April 2015.

Under the headline, 'PM launches task force to tackle meth scourge' (News, 8 Apr.), 'Ice is ruining individuals, destroying families and hurting communities,' the Prime Minister said. After grovelling to the Indonesians, spending thousands of dollars on making a gigantic drama out of their efforts to save the lives of two men who supplied drugs to our country, our government is about to spend millions of dollars in an effort to undo the harm done by the likes of the leaders of the so-called Bali Nine.

Letters, *The West Australian*, 9 April 2015

- 1 How would you describe the moral dilemma raised by the situation and the letter above?

- 2 Discuss this moral dilemma with your partner or small group and come up with three arguments for and three arguments against efforts that were made to save Chan and Sukumaran from the death penalty. Write these in the spaces below.

For	Against

- 3 What is your response to this moral dilemma? Compare your response with those offered by others in the class.

- 4 A person's culture may influence their response to some moral dilemmas. Reflect on your own cultural background and explain how you think this may have influenced your response to this moral dilemma.

- 5 A person's gender may influence their response to some moral dilemmas. Explain how you think that being male or female might change a person's response to the dilemma presented in this example.

4.1.14 Outcomes 1, 3 and 4

- 1 You are on holiday in Bali with your 18-year-old son and your wife. You have been there for a week and are ready to fly home. You are at the airport checking in your luggage when a sniffer dog starts sniffing at your son's bag. You look over at your son and he is looking nervous. You know he has smoked a little marijuana over the past two years, but generally he is a good kid. At first you think he couldn't be that stupid, and then you realise you are in Bali, and they have a zero tolerance policy on drugs. If your son is found in possession of drugs he could be jailed for life or executed. You look across at your wife. She has gone pale with fear.

The attendant officer looks at you and asks, 'Whose bag is this?'

You realise you have to answer, but the answer won't be easy. You see your wife in the corner of your eye, and she steps forward, about to claim it as her own. What do you say?

In answering this question, think about Kohlberg's stages and Gilligan's theory on moral reasoning.

2 Consider the following opinion.

The Commonwealth Government has prioritised the stopping of authorised boats landing in Australia. The arrival of unauthorised boats has stopped. Potentially this will mean no more asylum seekers entering our detention centres. Why then is the government spending hundreds of thousands of dollars keeping those currently in detention centres? Why not allow those currently in Australia to become Australian citizens?

a What is the moral dilemma in this example?

b What would you advise the government to do in this situation?

Erikson's stage theory of identity

4.1.15 Outcomes 1, 3 and 4

- Erik Erikson (1902–1994) believed that children and adults progress through _____ stages, or developmental _____. At each stage, the environment and the person's responses to the environment influence the development of either a healthy or unhealthy personality characteristic.
- Table 4.2 shows Erikson's stages of psychosocial development. Write in the relevant developmental crisis for each age group. (Refer to Table 16.2 on page 233 in your Student Book (Chapter 16) to help you answer this question.)

Table 4.2 Erikson's stages of psychosocial development

Age	Developmental crisis	Positive outcome of crisis
Birth–1 year		Sense of security
1–3 years		Independence
3–6 years		Trying new things
6–12 years		Sense of mastery and competence
Adolescence 12–18 years		Sense of self, personal values and beliefs
Young adulthood 18–40 years		Committing to a mutually loving relationship
Middle adulthood 40–65 years		Contributing to society – work, family, community
Late adulthood 65+		Viewing life as positive and satisfactory

- 3 Is the following statement true (T) or false (F)?

According to Erikson, abnormal personality development could be traced to resolving an identity crisis at an early stage of development.

4.1.16 Outcomes 1, 3 and 4

Match each term from the list with its meaning by writing each term in the correct table cell.

self-awareness egocentric perspective visual perspective taking
 prosocial development social cognition Piaget's argument
 identity identity formation

Term	Meaning
	You are required to adopt a literally different perspective from another person and judge what the other person can see
	Development of the self-concept
	Development of kindness and sharing
	Understanding the world around us through watching, interpreting and remembering social information and then using it to assess ourselves and others
	An inability to see things from another person's point of view
	Describes the enduring personality characteristics of each and every one of us
	Children generally find out about the world alone, i.e. there isn't a role for social interaction in a child's development
	A series of continual challenges that have to be met by the individual to move successfully to the next phase in life, starting from infancy through to old age

4.1.17 Outcomes 1 and 3

Are the following statements true (T) or false (F)?

- 1 Vygotsky argued that children learn from others who have greater knowledge than themselves and his whole theory revolves around how children take this learning and make it into something they can use themselves.
- 2 Children's social development and cognitive development are not interrelated and improvements in one domain do not lead to changes in the other.
- 3 The development of identity is considered to be a series of continual challenges that have to be met by the individual to move successfully to the next phase of life.
- 4 Erikson's stages of identity development are regarded as a model of normal personality development.

4.1.18 Outcomes 1, 3 and 4

You are the mother of two girls, Sandy (14) and Elizabeth (16). Sandy confessed to you that she feels she is a lesbian. She has no sexual attraction to boys and never has, and feels attracted to some girls. Sandy wants to have a sleepover with her straight friend Fiona. You feel concerned that because Sandy identifies as lesbian, the event could escalate into sexual activity. Sandy said it wouldn't be fair if you said no to her going, when you have said yes to her sister and allowed her to have a sleepover at the same age.

Sandy said she would feel as though you were punishing her for being homosexual and it would create a double standard.

What would you do as Sandy's mother? Explain your answer using your psychological understandings of moral development and Erikson's stage theory of identity.

Bandura's social learning theory

4.1.19 Outcomes 1, 3 and 4

- 1 a How do people learn social behaviour? Ask the person next to you this question.
b Did you agree or disagree with their answer? Why do you think you may have come up with a different explanation from theirs?

- 2 Describe Bandura's famous Bobo doll experiment. Does it support or refute the notion that what a child sees can influence the type and level of aggressive behaviour that he/she shows?

- 3 Are the following statements true (T) or false (F)?

- a Bandura proposed that children take in information from watching the behaviour of others but don't copy it.
b The Bobo doll experiment demonstrated that the children changed their behaviour without reinforcement or punishment.
c Bandura's theory challenged behaviourists' learning theories.
d Bandura acknowledges that learners play an active role in the modelling process.

4.1.20 Outcomes 1, 3 and 4

Describe two areas of current research where social learning theory and observational learning have been applied to further understand the behaviour of children and teenagers.
